EXAM PACK

EEE329

Basic Communication Engineering



Exam Pack

Session 2020–21 *Solutions and formula sheet of the 3rd Year 2nd Semester Final Examination, 2023*

IN THIS PACK

1 PAST PAPER SOLUTIONS
Question Paper Solutions 2020–21 — pages 3--53 — 51 pages

2 FORMULA SHEET
Formula Sheet — pages 54--62 — 9 pages

Tap a document to open it. Each one keeps its own cover, contents and links.

Prepared by Nur Mohammad

October 2026

IN THIS PACK

Exam Pack

Tap a heading to open that document, or a line to go straight to that page. Each document keeps its own cover, contents and links; the bookmarks panel lists them all.

1 PAST PAPER SOLUTIONS
Question Paper Solutions 2020–21

pages 3--53

Question Paper 5
1(a) Entropy of a Single-Bit Binary Memoryless Source 11
1(b) Major Bands of the EM Spectrum 12
1(c) Thermal Noise and Transit-Time Noise 14
1(d) AM Modulation Index and Side Frequencies . . 16
1(e) AM Sidebands and Total Power 17
2(a) Multiplexing versus Multiple Access 19
2(b) Minimum Bandwidth of an FDM Link 20
2(c) Relation Between FM and PM 21
2(d) FM Frequency Deviation and Modulation Index 23
3(a) Slope Overload, Granular Noise and ADM . . . 25
3(b) Delta Modulation Transmitter and Receiver . . 26
3(c) Block Diagram of a PCM System 28
3(d) Information Rate and Channel Capacity 29
4(a) Superheterodyne Receiver 32
4(b) Recovering the Message from a VSB Signal . . 33
4(c) Nyquist Sampling Theorem and the Interpolation Formula 35
4(d) Carson's Rule and its Limitations 38
5(a) TDMA versus CDMA 40
5(b) Channel Capacity and Minimum SNR 41
5(c) Minimum Cable Bandwidth for the ECG TDM System 42
5(d) Coherent Detection of DSB-SC and the Lowest Carrier 44
6(a) FSK Generation, Spectrum and Bandwidth . . 47
6(b) Coherent Detection of QAM 49
6(c) Frequency Hopping Spread Spectrum 50
6(d) DPSK Encoder and Receiver Table for '1010011100' 52

2 FORMULA SHEET
Formula Sheet

pages 54--62

1 Information and channel capacity 57
2 Noise 57
3 Amplitude modulation 58
4 Angle modulation 59
5 Sampling, PCM and delta modulation 59
6 Multiplexing 60
7 Receivers and digital modulation 60
8 Key formulas 61
9 Symbol index 62

PAST PAPER SOLUTIONS

EEE329

Basic Communication Engineering

Question Paper Solutions

Session 2020–21

EEE329 3rd Year 2nd Semester Final Examination, 2023

QUESTION MAP

Q1	Q2	Q3	Q4	Q5	Q6
25 marks	25 marks	25 marks	25 marks	25 marks	25 marks

EACH ANSWER

Theory → Answer → Keyword Explanation → Notes and Remarks → Final Concise Answer

Prepared by Nur Mohammad

October 2026

BACK OF THE COVER

The paper at a glance

3 h	100	4 of 6	45 min
Total time	Total marks	Questions to answer	Per question

Time = marks × 1.8 min (180 min for 100 marks). Tick the questions you will answer; each sub-part links to its solution.

Q	Sub-part	Marks	Time	Pick
Part-A · **Answer any two of the following questions**				
Q1	(a) Entropy of a Single-Bit Binary Memoryless Source	5	9 min	☐
	(b) Major Bands of the EM Spectrum	6	11 min	
	(c) Thermal Noise and Transit-Time Noise	4	7 min	
	(d) AM Modulation Index and Side Frequencies	4	7 min	
	(e) AM Sidebands and Total Power	6	11 min	
Q2	(a) Multiplexing versus Multiple Access	5	9 min	☐
	(b) Minimum Bandwidth of an FDM Link	5	9 min	
	(c) Relation Between FM and PM	5	9 min	
	(d) FM Frequency Deviation and Modulation Index	10	18 min	
Q3	(a) Slope Overload, Granular Noise and ADM	5	9 min	☐
	(b) Delta Modulation Transmitter and Receiver	5	9 min	
	(c) Block Diagram of a PCM System	5	9 min	
	(d) Information Rate and Channel Capacity	10	18 min	
Part-B · **Answer any two of the following questions**				
Q4	(a) Superheterodyne Receiver	7	13 min	☐
	(b) Recovering the Message from a VSB Signal	7	13 min	
	(c) Nyquist Sampling Theorem and the Interpolation Formula	7	13 min	
	(d) Carson's Rule and its Limitations	4	7 min	
Q5	(a) TDMA versus CDMA	5	9 min	☐
	(b) Channel Capacity and Minimum SNR	6	11 min	
	(c) Minimum Cable Bandwidth for the ECG TDM System	7	13 min	
	(d) Coherent Detection of DSB-SC and the Lowest Carrier	7	13 min	
Q6	(a) FSK Generation, Spectrum and Bandwidth	8	14 min	☐
	(b) Coherent Detection of QAM	7	13 min	
	(c) Frequency Hopping Spread Spectrum	6	11 min	
	(d) DPSK Encoder and Receiver Table for '1010011100'	4	7 min	

Formulas and conventions follow Lathi and Ding, Modern Digital and Analog Communication Systems (4th ed.); 1(b), 2(a), 2(b), 5(a), 5(b) and 6(c) follow Forouzan, Data Communications and Networking; 1(c)(ii) follows Kennedy and Davis, Electronic Communication Systems.

Shahjalal University of Science and Technology

Department of Electrical and Electronic Engineering
3rd Year 2nd Semester Final Examination, 2023
Course Code: EEE 329, Session: 2020-2021
Course Title: Basic Communication Engineering

Total Marks: 100 **Credits: 3.0** **Total Time: 3 Hours**

Part-A

[Answer any two of the following questions]

1. (a) Find the entropy of single bit binary memoryless source. Also draw the curve of entropy Vs. probability for that source. 5

   (b) Briefly explain the three major bands of the electromagnetic (EM) spectrum-radio waves, microwaves and infra-red waves-in terms of their bandwidth, propagation mode and applications. 6

   (c) Write short note on-

   (i) Thermal Noise
   (ii) Transit Time Noise 4

   (d) A carrier wave of frequency 10 MHz and peak value of 10 V is amplitude modulated by a 5 kHz sine wave of amplitude 6 V. Determine the modulation index, side frequencies and amplitude of side frequencies. 4

   (e) An audio frequency signal $10\sin(2\pi 500t)$ is used to amplitude modulated a carrier of $50\sin(2\pi 105t)$ [*sic*: should be $2\pi 10^5 t$]. Calculate:

   (i) Modulation index
   (ii) Side-band frequencies
   (iii) Total power delivered to the load of 600 Ω 6

2. (a) Differentiate between multiplexing and multiple access technologies. 5

   (b) Five channels, each with 100 kHz bandwidth, are to be frequency division multiplexing together. What is the minimum bandwidth of the link if there is a need for a guard band of 10 kHz between the channel to prevent interference? 5

   (c) With proper block diagram explain the relation between frequency modulation and phase modulation. 5

   (d) In an FM system, when the audio frequency is 500 Hz and modulating voltage 2.5 V, the deviation produced is 5 kHz. If the modulating voltage is now increased to 7.5 V, calculate the new value of frequency deviation produced. If the AF voltage is raised to 10 V while the modulating frequency dropped to 250 Hz, what is the frequency deviation? Calculate the modulation index in each case. 10

3. (a) Define slope overload distortion and granular noise in delta modulation and how it is removed in ADM? 5

   (b) Draw the transmitter and receiver circuits block diagram of delta modulation. 5

   (c) Explain the basic block diagram of PCM system. 5

   (d) An analog signal having 4 kHz bandwidth is sampled at 1.25 times the Nyquist rate, and each sample is quantized into one of 256 equally likely level. Assuming the samples to be statistically independent:

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

(i) What is the information rate of the source?
(ii) Can the output of this source be transmitted without error over the AWGN channel with a bandwidth of 10 kHz and S/N ratio of 20 dB?
(iii) Find S/N ratio required for error-free transmission of part ii.
(iv) Find the bandwidth required for an AWGN channel for an error free transmission of output of this source if S/N ratio is 20 dB 10

Part-B

[Answer any two of the following questions]

4. (a) With appropriate block diagram, describe the operation of superheterodyne receiver. 7
(b) Explain how the message signal is reconstructed from VSB signal. 7
(c) State and prove Nyquist sampling theorem. Also find the interpolation formula for the reconstruction of analog signals from its uniform samples. 7
(d) State Carson's rule and its limitations. 4

5. (a) Write down the comparison between TDMA and CDMA. 5
(b) A voice grade telephone channel has a bandwidth of 3400 Hz. If the signal to noise ratio (SNR) on the channel is 30 dB, determine the capacity of the channel. If the above channel is to be used to transmit 4.8 kbps of data, determine the minimum SNR required on the channel. 6
(c) It is desired to set up a central station for simultaneous monitoring of the electrocardiograms (ECGs) of 10 hospital patients. The data from the 10 patents [*sic*: should be "patients"] are brought to a processing center over wires and are sampled, quantized, binary-coded, and time-division-multiplexed. The multiplexed data are now transmitted to the monitoring station. The ECG signal bandwidth is 100 Hz. The maximum acceptable error in sample amplitude is 0.25% of the peak signal amplitude. The sampling rate must be at least twice the Nyquist rate. Determine the minimum cable bandwidth needed to transmit these multiplexed data. 7
(d) Consider a message signal m(t) with the spectrum shown in Fig. 1. The message bandwidth W = 1 kHz. This signal is applied to a product modulator, together with a carrier wave $A_c \cos(2\pi f_c t)$, producing the DSBSC modulated wave s(t). This modulated wave is next applied to a coherent detector. Assuming perfect synchronism between the carrier waves in the modulator and detector, determine the spectrum of the detector output when:

(i) the carrier frequency $f_c = 1.25$ kHz and
(ii) the carrier frequency $f_c = 0.75$ kHz.

What is the lowest carrier frequency for which each component of the modulated wave s(t) is uniquely determined by m(t)? 7

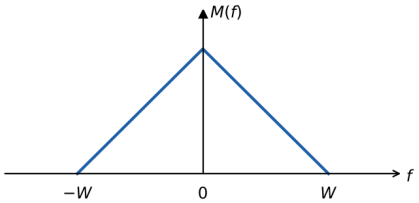


Fig. 1 of the paper (redrawn): the message spectrum M(f)

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

6. (a) Briefly describe FSK generation with the necessary block diagram. Include its spectrum and discuss the bandwidth requirements, along with the advantages and disadvantages of FSK. 8

   (b) With proper block diagram explain the principle of coherent detection of QAM. Mention its advantages and drawbacks. 7

   (c) Explain the principle of frequency hopping spread spectrum technique. 6

   (d) Tabulate the values of signal at each stage of DPSK encoder and receiver for message signal '1010011100' 4

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

Contents

1(a) Entropy of a Single-Bit Binary Memoryless Source **9**
1 Theory . . . 9
2 Answer . . . 9
3 Notes and Remarks . . . 10

1(b) Major Bands of the EM Spectrum **10**
1 Theory . . . 10
2 Answer . . . 11
3 Notes and Remarks . . . 12

1(c) Thermal Noise and Transit-Time Noise **12**
1 Theory . . . 12
2 Answer . . . 13
3 Notes and Remarks . . . 14

1(d) AM Modulation Index and Side Frequencies **14**
1 Theory . . . 14
2 Answer . . . 14

1(e) AM Sidebands and Total Power **15**
1 Theory . . . 15
2 Answer . . . 16
3 Notes and Remarks . . . 16
4 Final Concise Answer . . . 16

2(a) Multiplexing versus Multiple Access **17**
1 Theory . . . 17
2 Answer . . . 17

2(b) Minimum Bandwidth of an FDM Link **18**
1 Theory . . . 18
2 Answer . . . 18

2(c) Relation Between FM and PM **19**
1 Theory . . . 19
2 Answer . . . 20

2(d) FM Frequency Deviation and Modulation Index **21**
1 Theory . . . 21
2 Answer . . . 21
3 Notes and Remarks . . . 22
4 Final Concise Answer . . . 22

3(a) Slope Overload, Granular Noise and ADM **23**
1 Theory . . . 23
2 Answer . . . 24
3 Notes and Remarks . . . 24

3(b) Delta Modulation Transmitter and Receiver **25**
1 Theory . . . 25
2 Answer . . . 25

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

3(c) Block Diagram of a PCM System **26**
1 Theory . . . 26
2 Answer . . . 26

3(d) Information Rate and Channel Capacity **27**
1 Theory . . . 27
2 Answer . . . 28
3 Notes and Remarks . . . 28
4 Final Concise Answer . . . 29

4(a) Superheterodyne Receiver **30**
1 Theory . . . 30
2 Answer . . . 30
3 Notes and Remarks . . . 31

4(b) Recovering the Message from a VSB Signal **31**
1 Theory . . . 31
2 Answer . . . 32

4(c) Nyquist Sampling Theorem and the Interpolation Formula **33**
1 Theory . . . 33
2 Answer . . . 34
3 Notes and Remarks . . . 36

4(d) Carson's Rule and its Limitations **36**
1 Theory . . . 36
2 Answer . . . 36
3 Final Concise Answer . . . 37

5(a) TDMA versus CDMA **38**
1 Theory . . . 38
2 Answer . . . 39

5(b) Channel Capacity and Minimum SNR **39**
1 Theory . . . 39
2 Answer . . . 40

5(c) Minimum Cable Bandwidth for the ECG TDM System **40**
1 Theory . . . 40
2 Answer . . . 41
3 Notes and Remarks . . . 42

5(d) Coherent Detection of DSB-SC and the Lowest Carrier **42**
1 Theory . . . 42
2 Answer . . . 43
3 Notes and Remarks . . . 44
4 Final Concise Answer . . . 44

6(a) FSK Generation, Spectrum and Bandwidth **45**
1 Theory . . . 45
2 Answer . . . 45
3 Notes and Remarks . . . 47

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

6(b) Coherent Detection of QAM **47**
1 Theory . . . 47
2 Answer . . . 47
3 Notes and Remarks . . . 48

6(c) Frequency Hopping Spread Spectrum **48**
1 Theory . . . 48
2 Answer . . . 49
3 Notes and Remarks . . . 50

6(d) DPSK Encoder and Receiver Table for '1010011100' **50**
1 Theory . . . 50
2 Answer . . . 50
3 Notes and Remarks . . . 51
4 Final Concise Answer . . . 51

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

1. (a) Find the entropy of single bit binary memoryless source. Also draw the curve of entropy Vs. probability for that source. Marks: 5

   (b) Briefly explain the three major bands of the electromagnetic (EM) spectrum-radio waves, microwaves and infra-red waves-in terms of their bandwidth, propagation mode and applications. Marks: 6

   (c) Write short note on-

   (i) Thermal Noise
   (ii) Transit Time Noise Marks: 4

   (d) A carrier wave of frequency 10 MHz and peak value of 10 V is amplitude modulated by a 5 kHz sine wave of amplitude 6 V. Determine the modulation index, side frequencies and amplitude of side frequencies. Marks: 4

   (e) An audio frequency signal $10\sin(2\pi 500t)$ is used to amplitude modulated a carrier of $50\sin(2\pi 105t)$ [*sic*: should be $2\pi 10^5 t$]. Calculate:

   (i) Modulation index
   (ii) Side-band frequencies
   (iii) Total power delivered to the load of 600 Ω Marks: 6

1.(a) Find the entropy of single bit binary memoryless source. Also draw the curve of entropy Vs. probability for that source. Marks: 5

1. Theory

1. What is a source? (Core Idea)

A **source** is anything that produces messages: a keyboard, a sensor, a microphone after sampling. We model it as a machine that sends one **symbol** at a time, picked from a fixed list. A **binary** source has only two symbols, 0 and 1. A **memoryless** source picks each symbol independently: what came before has no effect on what comes next. A coin toss is memoryless. So a single-bit binary memoryless source is a machine that keeps tossing a (possibly unfair) coin.

2. How much information is in one symbol?

Information measures **surprise**. "The sun rose today" tells you nothing new. "It snowed in Sylhet" tells you a lot. So a rare symbol carries more information than a common one. A symbol of probability P carries

$$I = \log_2 \frac{1}{P} \quad \text{bits}$$

Why a logarithm? Two independent symbols have probability $P_1 P_2$, and we want their information to add. The logarithm turns the product into a sum. The check is simple: a fair coin toss has $P = 1/2$, so $I = \log_2 2 = 1$ bit. That is where the word "bit" comes from.

3. What is entropy?

Entropy H is the **average** information per symbol. Each symbol's information is weighted by how often the symbol comes:

$$H = \sum_i P_i \log_2 \frac{1}{P_i} \quad \text{bits/symbol}$$

It is also the smallest average number of binary digits per symbol that any lossless code can reach.

2. Answer

Let the source send 1 with probability p and 0 with probability $1 - p$. By definition,

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

$$H(p) = p\log_2\frac{1}{p} + (1-p)\log_2\frac{1}{1-p}$$

$$\boxed{H(p) = -p\log_2 p - (1-p)\log_2(1-p) \quad \text{bits/symbol}}$$

Maximum: set the derivative to zero:

$$\frac{dH}{dp} = \log_2\frac{1-p}{p} = 0 \;\Rightarrow\; \frac{1-p}{p} = 1 \;\Rightarrow\; p = \frac{1}{2}$$

$$H_{max} = \frac{1}{2}\log_2 2 + \frac{1}{2}\log_2 2 = 1 \text{ bit/symbol}$$

End points: at $p = 0$ or $p = 1$ the output is certain, so $H = 0$ (using $p\log_2 p \to 0$ as $p \to 0$).

p	0	0.1	0.2	0.3	0.4	0.5	0.6	0.7	0.8	0.9	1
$H(p)$	0	0.469	0.722	0.881	0.971	1	0.971	0.881	0.722	0.469	0

Table 1: Entropy of a binary memoryless source

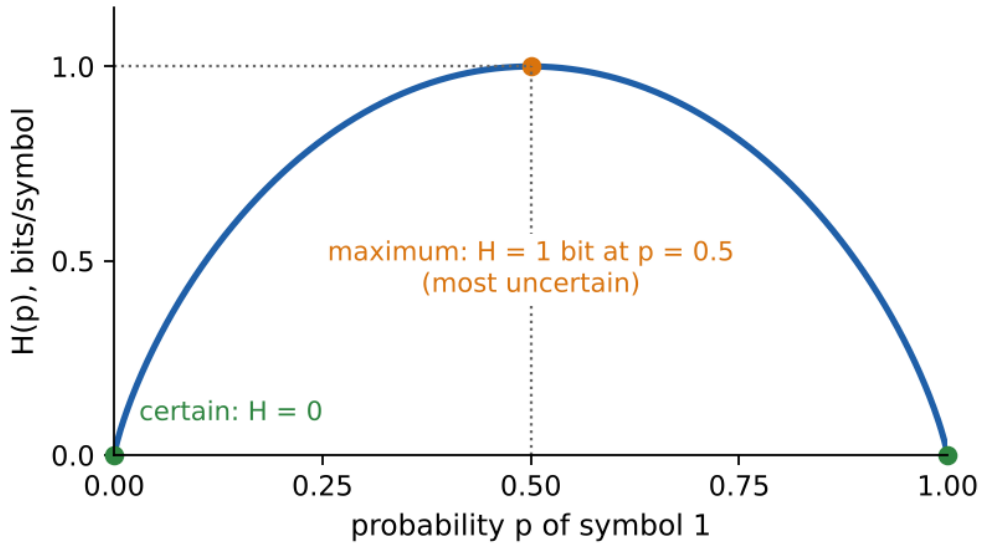


Figure 1: Entropy of a binary memoryless source against probability

Reading the figure. The curve is a symmetric arch. It is 0 at $p = 0$ and $p = 1$, where the output is certain (green dots), and it peaks at 1 bit when $p = 0.5$ (orange dot), where both symbols are equally likely. Swapping the names of 0 and 1 changes nothing, so $H(p) = H(1-p)$.

3. Notes and Remarks

- A source that sends one binary digit per symbol carries *less* than one bit of information unless $p = 0.5$. The binary digit (a container) and the bit (the unit of information) are different things.

1.(b) Briefly explain the three major bands of the electromagnetic (EM) spectrum-radio waves, microwaves and infra-red waves-in terms of their bandwidth, propagation mode and applications. Marks: 6

1. Theory

1. What is the EM spectrum? (Core Idea)

Electromagnetic (EM) waves are travelling electric and magnetic fields. They all move at the speed of light $c = 3 \times 10^8$ m/s and differ only in frequency f. The wavelength is $\lambda = c/f$. The **spectrum** is the

list of all these waves in order of frequency.

2. Why does the band matter?

Three things change as the frequency rises:

- **Bandwidth:** a band at high frequency is wider in Hz, so it can carry more data.
- **Propagation:** low frequencies bend around the Earth and pass through walls. High frequencies travel in straight lines and are blocked easily.
- **Antenna size:** an antenna is a fraction of λ, so high frequencies use small antennas that can focus the beam.

A **propagation mode** is the path a wave takes: **ground wave** (following the Earth's surface), **sky wave** (bent back by the ionosphere) or **line of sight** (a straight path).

2. Answer

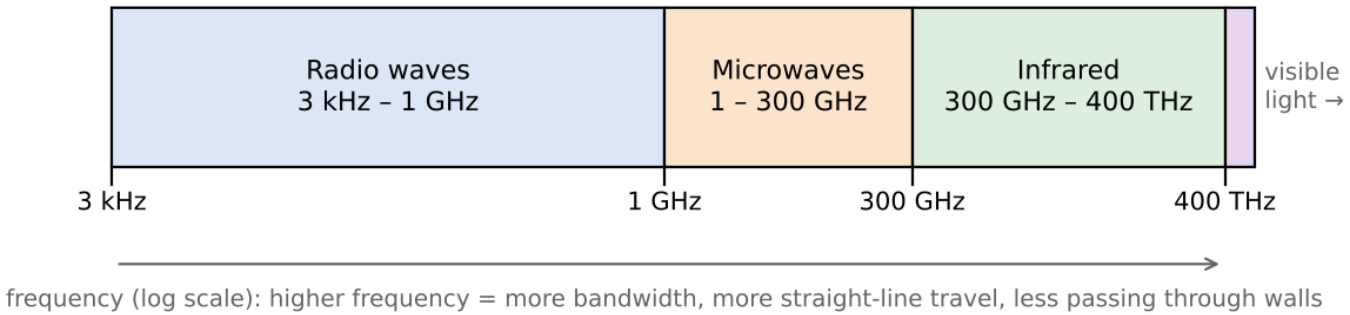


Figure 2: The three bands on a frequency scale

Reading the figure. The axis is logarithmic, so each band's width on the page shows its ratio of frequencies, not its width in Hz. Radio waves stop at 1 GHz, microwaves run to 300 GHz, and infrared runs to 400 THz, just below visible light.

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

	Radio waves	Microwaves	Infrared
Frequency band	3 kHz to 1 GHz	1 GHz to 300 GHz	300 GHz to 400 THz
Bandwidth	smallest: narrow channels, low data rates	wide: high data rates	very wide, but used over short distances
Propagation	ground wave at low frequencies, sky wave in the HF band, line of sight at VHF and UHF; mostly omnidirectional	line of sight; unidirectional, narrow beams, so the antennas must be aligned	short-range line of sight; cannot pass through walls
Antennas	simple omnidirectional antennas (dipole, monopole)	parabolic dish and horn	LED and photodiode
Applications	AM and FM radio, television, maritime radio, paging	satellite links, cellular phones, wireless LANs, radar	TV remote controls, short-range device links, wireless keyboards and mice

Table 2: The three major bands

Key Point: going up in frequency gives more bandwidth but a shorter, straighter path.

3. Notes and Remarks

- The band edges follow Forouzan. Other books place the edge between radio waves and microwaves differently; the idea stays the same.
- Infrared cannot pass through walls, which is an advantage too: one room's link does not disturb the next. Sunlight, however, contains infrared and can interfere outdoors.

1.(c) Write short note on- (i) Thermal Noise (ii) Transit Time Noise Marks: 4

1. Theory

1. What is noise? (Core Idea)

Noise is any unwanted random signal added to the wanted one. The receiver cannot predict it, so it cannot simply subtract it. Some noise comes from outside (lightning, motors). Some is made inside the receiver's own parts, and that is the type asked here.

Electric current is a stream of separate electrons. They never move perfectly smoothly, and that tiny randomness is the source of both types of noise below.

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

2. Where the two types sit

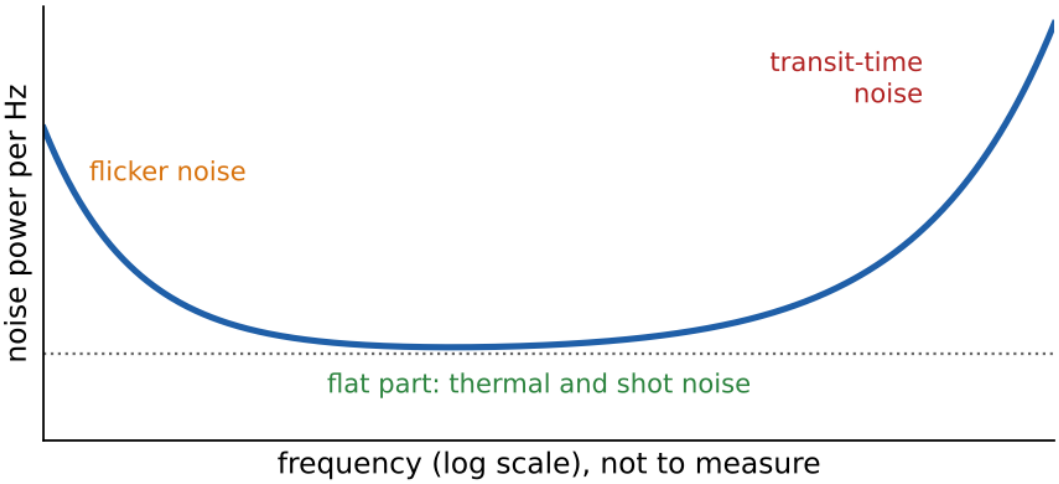


Figure 3: How the noise of a transistor changes with frequency

Reading the figure. This sketch is qualitative. At very low frequency flicker noise is large. In the middle the curve is flat, set by thermal and shot noise. At the far right the curve rises again: this is transit-time noise.

2. Answer

i. Thermal Noise

Thermal (Johnson) noise is the random voltage produced by the random motion of free electrons in any conductor or resistor, caused by heat. It exists even with no current flowing, and it vanishes only at absolute zero.

Key Points:

- Its power grows with temperature and bandwidth, not with the signal:

$$P_n = kTB$$

where $k = 1.38 \times 10^{-23}$ J/K is Boltzmann's constant, T is the temperature in kelvin and B is the bandwidth in Hz.

- A resistor R acts as a noise source of r.m.s. voltage

$$V_n = \sqrt{4kTBR}$$

- It is **white**: its power per Hz is the same over the whole range used in communication. Its amplitude is Gaussian.

Practical Note: at $T = 290$ K with $B = 1$ MHz and $R = 1$ kΩ, $P_n = 4.0 \times 10^{-15}$ W (-114 dBm) and $V_n \approx 4$ μV. Reducing the bandwidth is the simple way to reduce it.

ii. Transit-Time Noise

Transit-time noise is the noise that appears in a transistor at very high frequencies, when the time an electron takes to cross the device becomes significant compared with one period of the signal.

Key Points:

- **Cause:** at the upper VHF range and beyond, carriers are still crossing while the signal changes. Random fluctuations in the output current then induce small currents in the input, which act as random noise.
- **Effect:** the noise rises with frequency above the flat part of the noise curve, so it sets a limit on low-noise operation at high frequency.
- **Remedy:** use devices with very short transit times (small geometry and high carrier mobility), chosen to have their cut-off far above the working frequency.

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

3. Notes and Remarks

- Thermal noise follows Lathi. Transit-time noise follows Kennedy and Davis, since neither Lathi nor Forouzan treats it.

1.(d) A carrier wave of frequency 10 MHz and peak value of 10 V is amplitude modulated by a 5 kHz sine wave of amplitude 6 V. Determine the modulation index, side frequencies and amplitude of side frequencies. Marks: 4

1. Theory

1. What is amplitude modulation? (Core Idea)

A message (audio) has low frequency and cannot travel far by itself. So we use a high-frequency **carrier** and make its amplitude follow the message. That is **amplitude modulation** (AM):

$$s(t) = [E_c + E_m \sin \omega_m t] \sin \omega_c t$$

The bracket is the **envelope**: the slowly changing outline of the fast carrier.

2. Modulation index

The **modulation index** μ tells how deeply the message moves the carrier's amplitude:

$$\mu = \frac{E_m}{E_c}$$

$\mu = 0$ means no modulation, and $\mu = 1$ means the envelope just reaches zero. Above 1 the envelope folds over, and a simple detector distorts the message.

3. Where the side frequencies come from

Put $E_m = \mu E_c$ and use $\sin A \sin B = \frac{1}{2}[\cos(A - B) - \cos(A + B)]$:

$$s(t) = E_c \sin \omega_c t + \frac{\mu E_c}{2} \cos(\omega_c - \omega_m)t - \frac{\mu E_c}{2} \cos(\omega_c + \omega_m)t$$

So AM is three plain sine waves: the carrier and two **side frequencies** at $f_c \pm f_m$, each of amplitude $\mu E_c/2$.

2. Answer

Given:

- Carrier frequency $f_c = 10$ MHz, peak value $E_c = 10$ V
- Message frequency $f_m = 5$ kHz $= 0.005$ MHz, amplitude $E_m = 6$ V

Step 1: Modulation index

$$\mu = \frac{E_m}{E_c} = \frac{6}{10}$$

$$\boxed{\mu = 0.6 \ (60\%)}$$

Step 2: Side frequencies

$$f_{USB} = f_c + f_m = 10 + 0.005 = 10.005 \text{ MHz}$$

$$f_{LSB} = f_c - f_m = 10 - 0.005 = 9.995 \text{ MHz}$$

$$\boxed{f_{USB} = 10.005 \text{ MHz}, \quad f_{LSB} = 9.995 \text{ MHz}}$$

Step 3: Amplitude of the side frequencies

$$\frac{\mu E_c}{2} = \frac{0.6 \times 10}{2}$$

each side frequency = 3 V

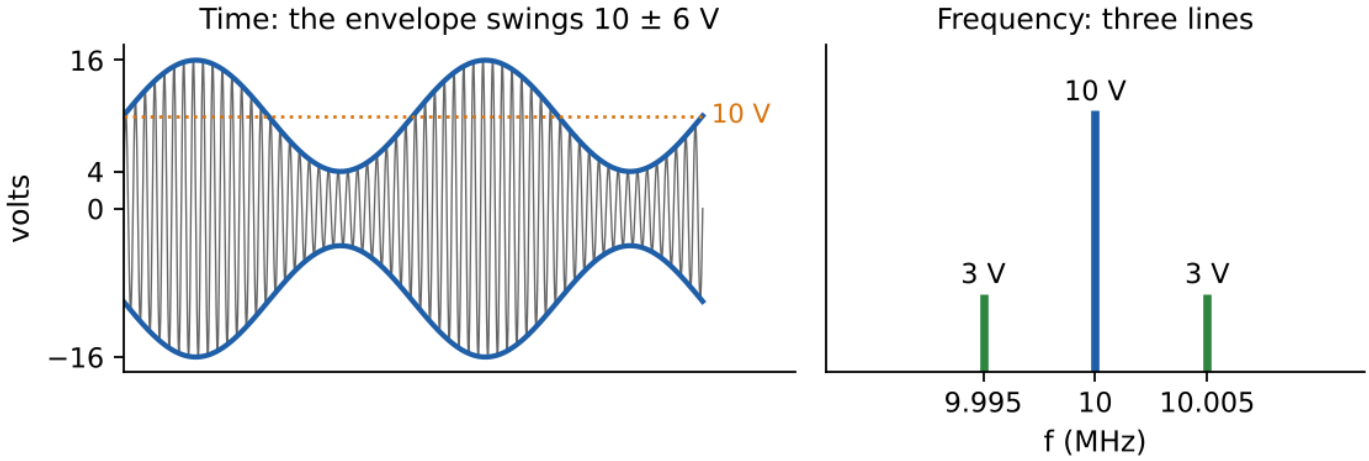


Figure 4: The AM wave in time and in frequency

Reading the figure. Left: the solid blue envelope swings between $10-6=4$ V and $10+6=16$ V around the dotted orange 10 V level. Right: the same signal in frequency is one 10 V carrier with a 3 V line on each side, 5 kHz away.
Final Answer: $\mu = 0.6$; side frequencies 10.005 MHz and 9.995 MHz; each of amplitude 3 V.

1.(e) An audio frequency signal $10\sin(2\pi 500t)$ is used to amplitude modulated a carrier of $50\sin(2\pi 105t)$ [*sic:* should be $2\pi 10^5 t$]**. Calculate: (i) Modulation index (ii) Side-band frequencies (iii) Total power delivered to the load of 600 Ω Marks: 6**

1. Theory

1. Reading a signal from its formula

A signal written as $A\sin(2\pi ft)$ has peak amplitude A and frequency f. So the amplitude and frequency can be read straight from the formula. The modulation index and side frequencies then follow as in 1(d).

2. Power in an AM wave

A sine wave of peak A has r.m.s. value $A/\sqrt{2}$, so across a resistance R its average power is

$$P = \frac{(A/\sqrt{2})^2}{R} = \frac{A^2}{2R}$$

AM is three sine waves at different frequencies, so their powers simply add. With the carrier power $P_c = E_c^2/2R$, each side frequency of amplitude $\mu E_c/2$ has power

$$P_{SB} = \frac{(\mu E_c/2)^2}{2R} = \frac{\mu^2}{4}P_c$$

Adding the carrier and the two side frequencies:

$$P_t = P_c + 2\cdot\frac{\mu^2}{4}P_c = P_c\left(1+\frac{\mu^2}{2}\right)$$

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

2. Answer

Note on the paper

The carrier is printed as $50\sin(2\pi 105t)$, which would make it 105 Hz, below the 500 Hz message. AM needs a carrier far above the message, so the exponent has been lost: it is read as $50\sin(2\pi 10^5 t)$, a 100 kHz carrier.

Given:

- Message $10\sin(2\pi 500t)$: $E_m = 10$ V, $f_m = 500$ Hz
- Carrier $50\sin(2\pi 10^5 t)$: $E_c = 50$ V, $f_c = 100$ kHz
- Load $R = 600\ \Omega$

Step 1: Modulation index

$$\mu = \frac{E_m}{E_c} = \frac{10}{50}$$

$$\boxed{\mu = 0.2}$$

Step 2: Side-band frequencies

$$f_{USB} = 100 + 0.5 = 100.5 \text{ kHz}, \qquad f_{LSB} = 100 - 0.5 = 99.5 \text{ kHz}$$

$$\boxed{f_{USB} = 100.5 \text{ kHz}, \quad f_{LSB} = 99.5 \text{ kHz}}$$

Step 3: Total power

$$P_c = \frac{E_c^2}{2R} = \frac{50^2}{2 \times 600} = 2.0833 \text{ W}$$

$$P_t = P_c\left(1 + \frac{\mu^2}{2}\right) = 2.0833\left(1 + \frac{0.2^2}{2}\right) = 2.0833 \times 1.02$$

$$\boxed{P_t = 2.125 \text{ W}}$$

The sidebands carry only $2 \times 0.02083 = 0.0417$ W, about 2% of the total. The rest is carrier, which carries no information.

Final Answer: $\mu = 0.2$; side-band frequencies 100.5 kHz and 99.5 kHz; total power 2.125 W.

3. Notes and Remarks

- The power does not depend on the exact carrier frequency, so the reading of the misprint changes only the side-band frequencies.
- The amplitudes in the formulas are peak values, which is why $E_c^2/2R$ is used and not E_c^2/R.

4. Final Concise Answer

(a) $H(p) = -p\log_2 p - (1-p)\log_2(1-p)$; 0 at $p = 0$ and $p = 1$, maximum 1 bit at $p = 0.5$; the curve is a symmetric arch.

(b) Radio waves: 3 kHz to 1 GHz, ground, sky or line of sight, radio and TV. Microwaves: 1 to 300 GHz, line of sight, satellite and cellular. Infrared: 300 GHz to 400 THz, short-range line of sight, remote controls.

(c) Thermal noise: random electron motion from heat, $P_n = kTB$, white. Transit-time noise: appears at very high frequency when the electron crossing time becomes significant compared with the signal period; it rises with frequency.

(d) $\mu = 0.6$; 10.005 MHz and 9.995 MHz; 3 V each.

(e) $\mu = 0.2$; 100.5 kHz and 99.5 kHz; $P_t = 2.125$ W.

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

2. (a) Differentiate between multiplexing and multiple access technologies. Marks: 5

(b) Five channels, each with 100 kHz bandwidth, are to be frequency division multiplexing together. What is the minimum bandwidth of the link if there is a need for a guard band of 10 kHz between the channel to prevent interference? Marks: 5

(c) With proper block diagram explain the relation between frequency modulation and phase modulation. Marks: 5

(d) In an FM system, when the audio frequency is 500 Hz and modulating voltage 2.5 V, the deviation produced is 5 kHz. If the modulating voltage is now increased to 7.5 V, calculate the new value of frequency deviation produced. If the AF voltage is raised to 10 V while the modulating frequency dropped to 250 Hz, what is the frequency deviation? Calculate the modulation index in each case. Marks: 10

2.(a) Differentiate between multiplexing and multiple access technologies. Marks: 5

1. Theory

1. The shared-resource problem (Core Idea)

A cable or a radio band is expensive, and many signals want to use it. Both multiplexing and multiple access let several signals share one resource. They divide it in the same ways: by frequency, by time or by code. The difference is **who is sharing and from where**.

2. Multiplexing

Multiplexing is like a bus at a terminal. All the passengers board at one stop, ride one road and get off at one stop. Several signals are combined at a single point by a **multiplexer (MUX)**, sent along one link, and separated at the far end by a **demultiplexer (DEMUX)**.

3. Multiple access

Multiple access is like many people in different houses taking turns on one shared telephone line. The users are in different places, each sending its own signal, and no single box combines them. They must follow a rule so that they do not collide, and the signals come together in the medium itself.

2. Answer

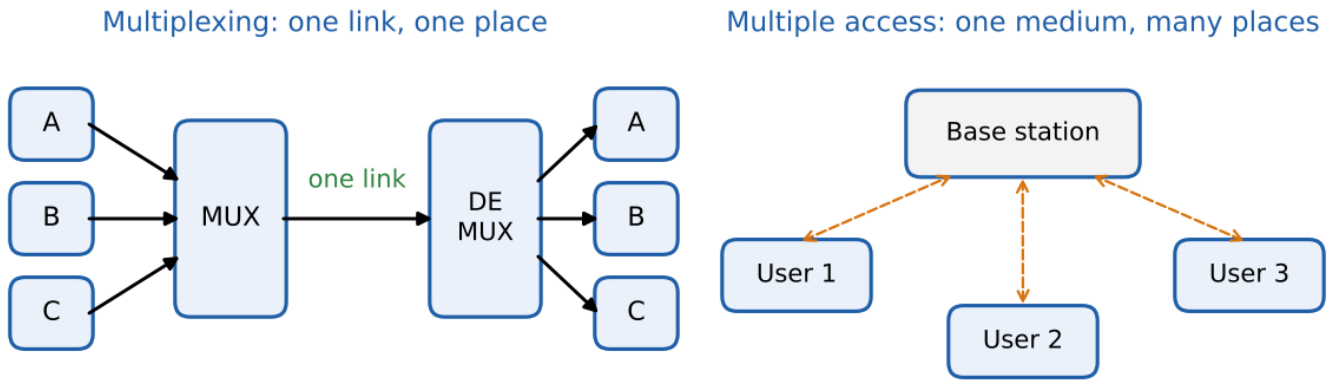


Figure 5: Multiplexing and multiple access

Reading the figure. Left: inputs A, B and C are combined by one MUX, carried on one link and separated by one DEMUX. Right: three separate users reach the same base station over the shared medium (dashed links), with no MUX between them.

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

	Multiplexing	Multiple access
What is shared	one link between two points	one medium (such as the air around a tower) by many separate users
Where signals are combined	at one place, by a MUX	in the channel; each user transmits from its own place
Control	one MUX/DEMUX pair; allocation is usually fixed	a protocol gives resources to users, who join and leave
Techniques	FDM, TDM, WDM	FDMA, TDMA, CDMA
Examples	telephone trunks (T-1, E-1), FDM radio	mobile networks, satellite access

Table 3: Multiplexing versus multiple access

In short, multiplexing combines several signals at one point onto one link. Multiple access lets distant users share one medium.

2.(b) Five channels, each with 100 kHz bandwidth, are to be frequency division multiplexing together. What is the minimum bandwidth of the link if there is a need for a guard band of 10 kHz between the channel to prevent interference? Marks: 5

1. Theory

1. Frequency division multiplexing (Core Idea)

Radio stations already show the idea: each one has its own frequency, and they all share the air. **FDM** gives each channel its own slice of the link's bandwidth, using a separate carrier for each.

2. Guard bands

Real filters do not cut sharply, so a channel's edge leaks a little into its neighbour. To stop this we leave an empty gap, a **guard band**, between neighbouring channels.

3. Counting the bandwidth

With N channels side by side there are only $N-1$ gaps **between** them, just as N posts in a line have $N-1$ spaces. So

$$B_{link} = NB_{ch} + (N-1)B_g$$

2. Answer

Given:

- Number of channels $N = 5$
- Channel bandwidth $B_{ch} = 100$ kHz
- Guard band $B_g = 10$ kHz, between channels

$$B_{link} = 5 \times 100 + (5-1) \times 10 = 500 + 40$$

$$\boxed{B_{link} = 540 \text{ kHz}}$$

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

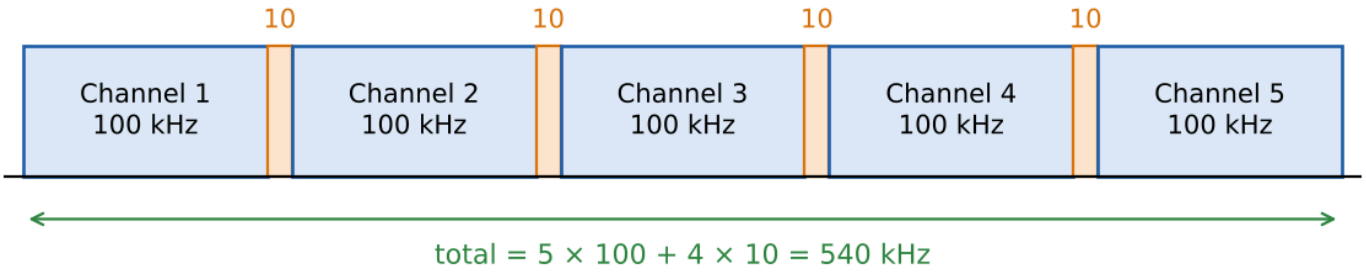


Figure 6: Five channels and four guard bands

Reading the figure. The five channels of 100 kHz are separated by four narrow guard bands of 10 kHz, and the double arrow marks the total of 540 kHz.

Assumption: guard bands are needed only between channels, as the question says. If guard bands were also kept at the two outer edges, there would be six and the total would be 560 kHz.

2.(c) With proper block diagram explain the relation between frequency modulation and phase modulation. Marks: 5

1. Theory

1. Angle modulation (Core Idea)

AM changes the height of the carrier. **Angle modulation** keeps the height fixed and changes the carrier's angle instead. Write the carrier as

$$\varphi(t) = A\cos\theta(t)$$

The rate at which the angle turns is the **instantaneous frequency**:

$$\omega_i(t) = \frac{d\theta}{dt}$$

So angle and frequency are tied together: frequency is the derivative of angle, and angle is the integral of frequency. This one fact explains the whole question.

2. Phase modulation

In **PM** the angle follows the message directly:

$$\theta(t) = \omega_c t + k_p m(t), \qquad \omega_i = \omega_c + k_p \dot{m}(t)$$

3. Frequency modulation

In **FM** the frequency follows the message directly:

$$\omega_i = \omega_c + k_f m(t), \qquad \theta(t) = \omega_c t + k_f \int m(\alpha)\, d\alpha$$

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

4. Seeing the difference

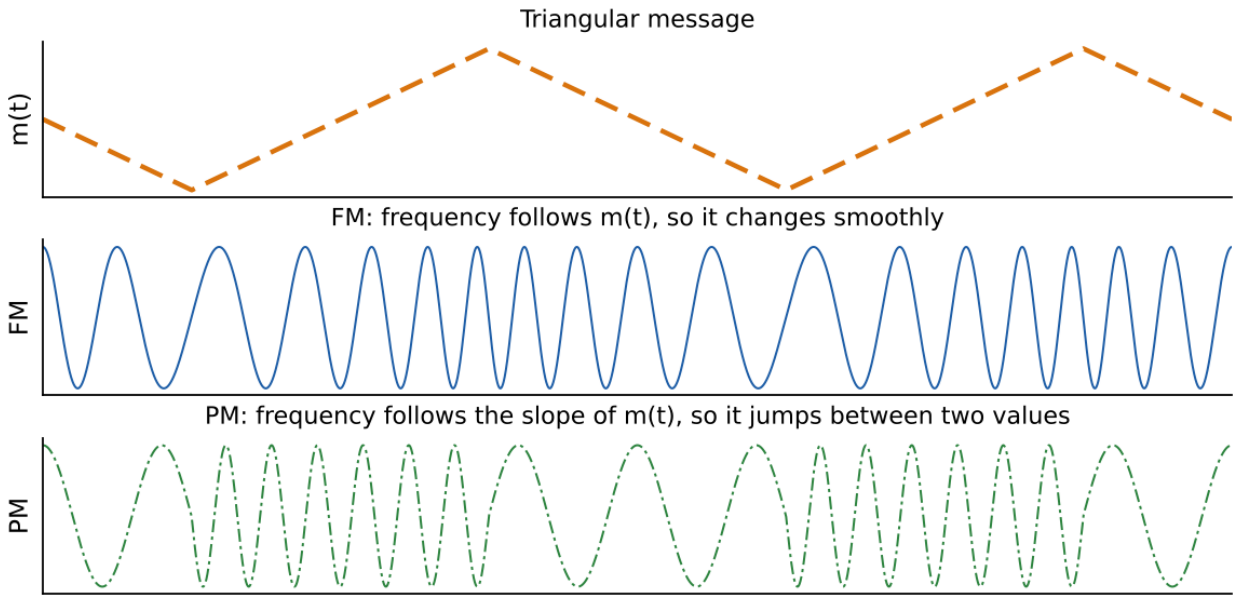


Figure 7: FM and PM for the same triangular message

Reading the figure. The dashed orange triangle is the message. The solid blue FM wave packs tighter as $m(t)$ rises and spreads as it falls, so its frequency changes smoothly with the message. The dash-dot green PM wave depends on the slope of $m(t)$: a rising slope gives one fixed high frequency and a falling slope one fixed low frequency, so it jumps at each corner.

2. Answer

FM and PM are two forms of angle modulation, and each can be made from the other.

$$\varphi_{PM}(t) = A\cos[\omega_c t + k_p m(t)]$$

$$\varphi_{FM}(t) = A\cos\left[\omega_c t + k_f \int m(\alpha)\, d\alpha\right]$$

Compare the two. FM of $m(t)$ is the same as PM of $\int m\, dt$. PM of $m(t)$ is the same as FM of $\dot{m}(t)$.

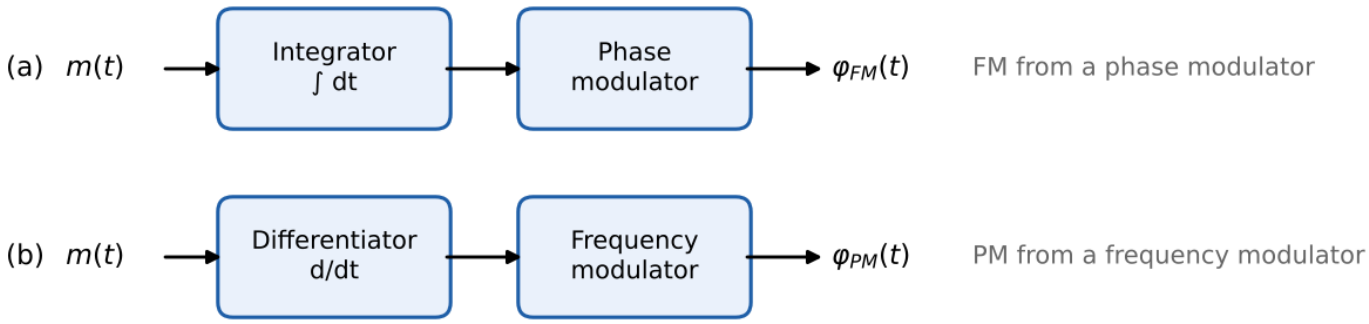


Figure 8: FM and PM made from each other

Reading the figure. (a) The message is integrated and then phase modulated, and the output is FM. (b) The message is differentiated and then frequency modulated, and the output is PM.

Key Points:

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

- **FM from PM:** integrate $m(t)$ and pass it to a phase modulator. This is the Armstrong (indirect) method of making FM.
- **PM from FM:** differentiate $m(t)$ and pass it to a frequency modulator.
- In PM the frequency deviation follows the **slope** of $m(t)$. In FM it follows $m(t)$ itself.
- Both have a constant amplitude A, so the power stays $A^2/2$, whatever the message.
- Just by looking at a modulated wave, you cannot tell FM from PM without knowing the message.

2.(d) In an FM system, when the audio frequency is 500 Hz and modulating voltage 2.5 V, the deviation produced is 5 kHz. If the modulating voltage is now increased to 7.5 V, calculate the new value of frequency deviation produced. If the AF voltage is raised to 10 V while the modulating frequency dropped to 250 Hz, what is the frequency deviation? Calculate the modulation index in each case. Marks: 10

1. Theory

1. Frequency deviation (Core Idea)

In FM the carrier's frequency moves up and down around f_c. The largest shift from f_c is the **frequency deviation** Δf. Because the frequency follows the message's *voltage*, the deviation is proportional to the modulating voltage:

$$\Delta f = k_f V_m$$

Here k_f (Hz/V) is the sensitivity of the modulator. It is a fixed property of the circuit. **The modulating frequency does not appear in this formula.** A louder tone swings the carrier further. A higher-pitched tone only swings it faster.

2. Modulation index

The **FM modulation index** β compares how far the carrier swings with how fast:

$$\beta = \frac{\Delta f}{f_m}$$

Unlike AM's μ, it can be much greater than 1, and it has no unit.

2. Answer

Given (Case 1): $f_{m1} = 500$ Hz, $V_1 = 2.5$ V, $\Delta f_1 = 5$ kHz.
Sensitivity:

$$k_f = \frac{\Delta f_1}{V_1} = \frac{5000}{2.5} = 2000 \text{ Hz/V} = 2 \text{ kHz/V}$$

Case 1: 2.5 V at 500 Hz

$$\beta_1 = \frac{\Delta f_1}{f_{m1}} = \frac{5000}{500}$$

$$\boxed{\Delta f_1 = 5 \text{ kHz}, \quad \beta_1 = 10}$$

Case 2: 7.5 V at 500 Hz

$$\Delta f_2 = k_f V_2 = 2 \times 7.5 = 15 \text{ kHz}$$

$$\beta_2 = \frac{15000}{500}$$

$$\boxed{\Delta f_2 = 15 \text{ kHz}, \quad \beta_2 = 30}$$

The voltage rose three times, so the deviation and the index each rose three times.

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

Case 3: 10 V at 250 Hz

$$\Delta f_3 = k_f V_3 = 2 \times 10 = 20 \text{ kHz}$$

$$\beta_3 = \frac{20000}{250}$$

$$\boxed{\Delta f_3 = 20 \text{ kHz}, \quad \beta_3 = 80}$$

The drop in frequency had no effect on the deviation, but it doubled β on top of the rise in voltage.

Final Summary:

Case	V_m (V)	f_m (Hz)	Δf (kHz)	β
1	2.5	500	5	10
2	7.5	500	15	30
3	10	250	20	80

Table 4: Deviation and modulation index in each case

3. Notes and Remarks

- Δf depends only on the amplitude; β depends on both the amplitude and the frequency.
- The word "deviation" here means the peak shift on one side of f_c. The total swing (carrier swing) is $2\Delta f$.

4. Final Concise Answer

(a) Multiplexing combines signals at one point onto one link (FDM, TDM, WDM). Multiple access lets separate users share one medium (FDMA, TDMA, CDMA).

(b) $5 \times 100 + 4 \times 10 = 540$ kHz.

(c) $\omega_i = d\theta/dt$, so FM of $m(t)$ equals PM of $\int m\,dt$ and PM of $m(t)$ equals FM of $\dot{m}(t)$; use an integrator or a differentiator before the modulator.

(d) $k_f = 2$ kHz/V; $\Delta f = 5, 15, 20$ kHz; $\beta = 10, 30, 80$.

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

3. (a) Define slope overload distortion and granular noise in delta modulation and how it is removed in ADM? Marks: 5

(b) Draw the transmitter and receiver circuits block diagram of delta modulation. Marks: 5

(c) Explain the basic block diagram of PCM system. Marks: 5

(d) An analog signal having 4 kHz bandwidth is sampled at 1.25 times the Nyquist rate, and each sample is quantized into one of 256 equally likely level. Assuming the samples to be statistically independent:

(i) What is the information rate of the source?

(ii) Can the output of this source be transmitted without error over the AWGN channel with a bandwidth of 10 kHz and S/N ratio of 20 dB?

(iii) Find S/N ratio required for error-free transmission of part ii.

(iv) Find the bandwidth required for an AWGN channel for an error free transmission of output of this source if S/N ratio is 20 dB Marks: 10

3.(a) Define slope overload distortion and granular noise in delta modulation and how it is removed in ADM? Marks: 5

1. Theory

1. What is delta modulation? (Core Idea)

Neighbouring samples of a signal are usually close in value. So instead of sending each full sample, **delta modulation (DM)** sends only one bit per sample: "go up" or "go down". The receiver draws a **staircase** $\hat{m}(t)$, moving one fixed step σ up or down at each sample. If the staircase stays close to the signal $m(t)$, the receiver has the signal.

Think of walking behind a moving friend with steps of one fixed length, taken at a fixed rate. You compare your place with your friend's, and step toward them.

2. How fast can the staircase climb?

Each sample takes $T_s = 1/f_s$ seconds and moves the staircase by σ, so the steepest slope it can follow is

$$\text{largest slope} = \frac{\sigma}{T_s} = \sigma f_s$$

3. The two errors

If your friend runs faster than you can walk, you fall behind. If your friend stands still, you keep stepping past and back. These are the two errors below, and they pull in opposite directions: a big step cures the first and worsens the second.

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

2. Answer

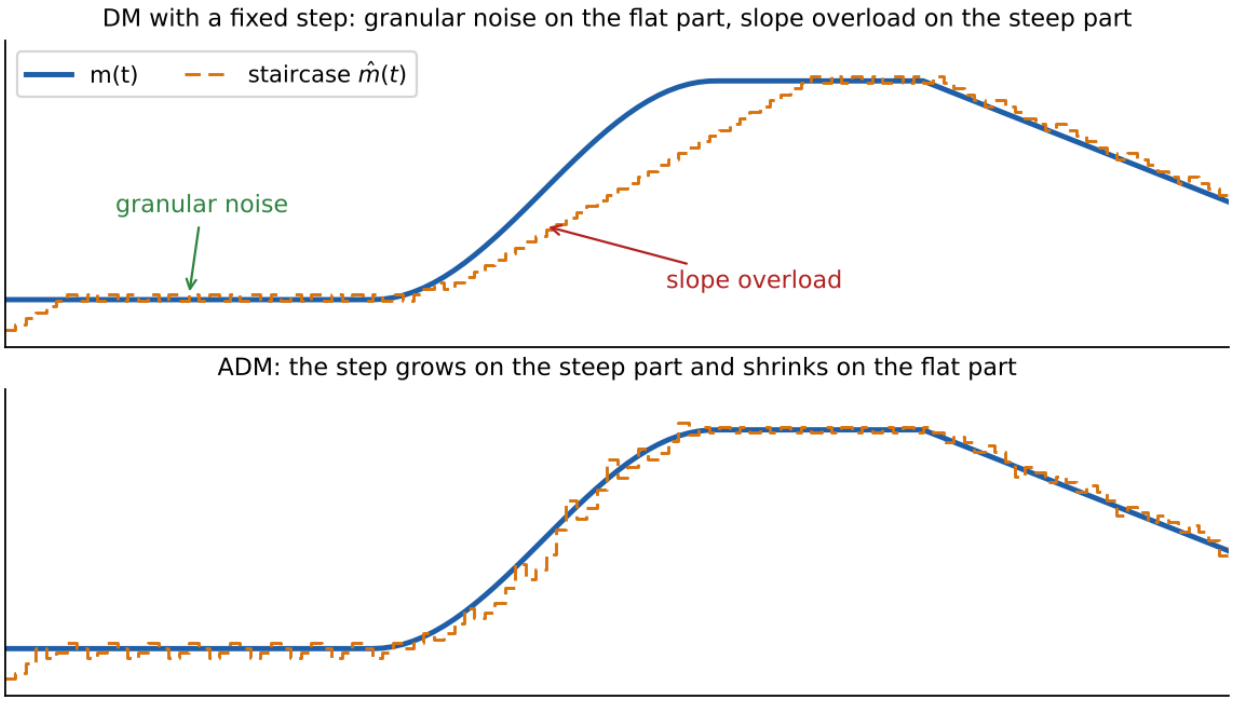


Figure 9: DM and ADM following the same signal

Reading the figure. Top: with a fixed step, the dashed orange staircase rattles around the flat part of the solid blue signal (granular noise) and falls behind on the steep rise (slope overload). Bottom: with ADM, on the same signal, the steps grow on the rise, so the staircase keeps up, and then shrink on the flat part.

Slope overload distortion: the error that occurs when the signal rises or falls faster than the staircase can follow, so that the staircase lags behind it. It occurs when

$$\left|\frac{dm}{dt}\right|_{max} > \sigma f_s$$

For a tone $m(t) = A\cos\omega_m t$, the condition for no overload is $A\omega_m \leq \sigma f_s$.

Granular noise: the error that occurs when the signal is flat or changes slowly. The staircase cannot stay still, so it hunts up and down by one step around the signal. This is like quantization noise, and it grows with σ.

Removal by adaptive delta modulation (ADM): ADM changes the step size to suit the signal.

- A **run of equal bits** (…1111 or …0000) shows that the staircase is lagging, so the step is **increased**. This removes slope overload.
- **Alternating bits** (…1010) show that the signal is flat, so the step is **decreased**. This reduces granular noise.

The step is worked out from the bit stream itself, so the receiver can follow the same rule with no extra information.

3. Notes and Remarks

- For fixed-step DM, the best σ is a compromise between the two errors. ADM avoids that compromise.
- The step cannot grow or shrink without limit. Real ADM sets a smallest and a largest step, as in the sketch above.

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

3.(b) Draw the transmitter and receiver circuits block diagram of delta modulation. Marks: 5

1. Theory

1. The plan (Core Idea)

The transmitter must decide "up" or "down" at each sample. To do that it needs to know where the receiver's staircase is now, so **it builds an exact copy of the receiver inside itself**. It compares the true signal with that copy and sends only the sign of the difference.

2. The accumulator

An **accumulator** keeps a running total: each incoming $+\sigma$ or $-\sigma$ is added to what it already holds. Its output is the staircase. It acts as a discrete integrator, which is why it is often called the integrator.

2. Answer

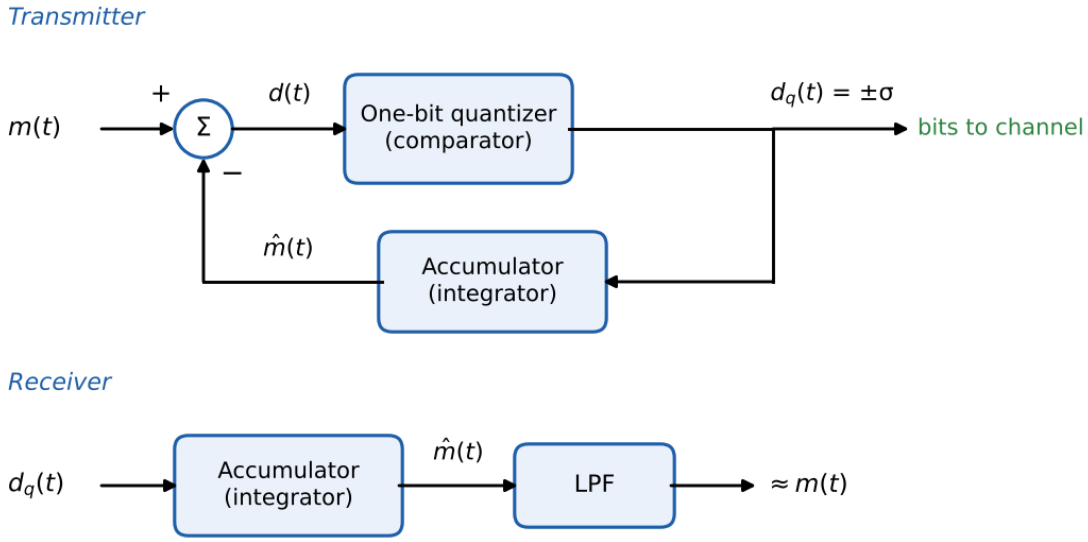


Figure 10: DM transmitter and receiver

Reading the figure. Top: $m(t)$ and the feedback $\hat{m}(t)$ meet at the summer, which gives $d(t)$. The one-bit quantizer sends $\pm\sigma$ to the channel, and also feeds the accumulator that builds $\hat{m}(t)$. Bottom: the received pulses go through an identical accumulator and an LPF.

Transmitter:

1. The **summer** finds the error $d(t) = m(t) - \hat{m}(t)$.
2. The **one-bit quantizer (comparator)** gives $d_q(t) = +\sigma$ if $d > 0$ and $-\sigma$ if $d < 0$, once per sample. This is sent as bit 1 or 0.
3. The **accumulator** in the feedback path adds up $d_q(t)$ to give the staircase $\hat{m}(t)$.

Receiver:

1. The **accumulator** adds up the received $\pm\sigma$ pulses and rebuilds the same staircase $\hat{m}(t)$.
2. The **low-pass filter** removes the sharp steps and out-of-band noise, leaving a smooth copy of $m(t)$.

The transmitter's feedback loop is what keeps errors from building up: the staircase is always steered back toward $m(t)$.

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

3.(c) Explain the basic block diagram of PCM system. Marks: 5

1. Theory

1. Why go digital? (Core Idea)

An analog signal picks up noise on the way, and an amplifier boosts that noise along with the signal. A digital signal has only two levels, so a repeater can decide "0 or 1" and send out a clean new pulse. Noise is thrown away at every stage. **Pulse code modulation (PCM)** turns an analog signal into a stream of bits for this reason.

2. The three steps of PCM

- **Sampling** takes values at regular instants. Time becomes discrete.
- **Quantizing** rounds each value to the nearest of L allowed levels. Amplitude becomes discrete.
- **Encoding** writes each level number in binary, using $n = \log_2 L$ bits.

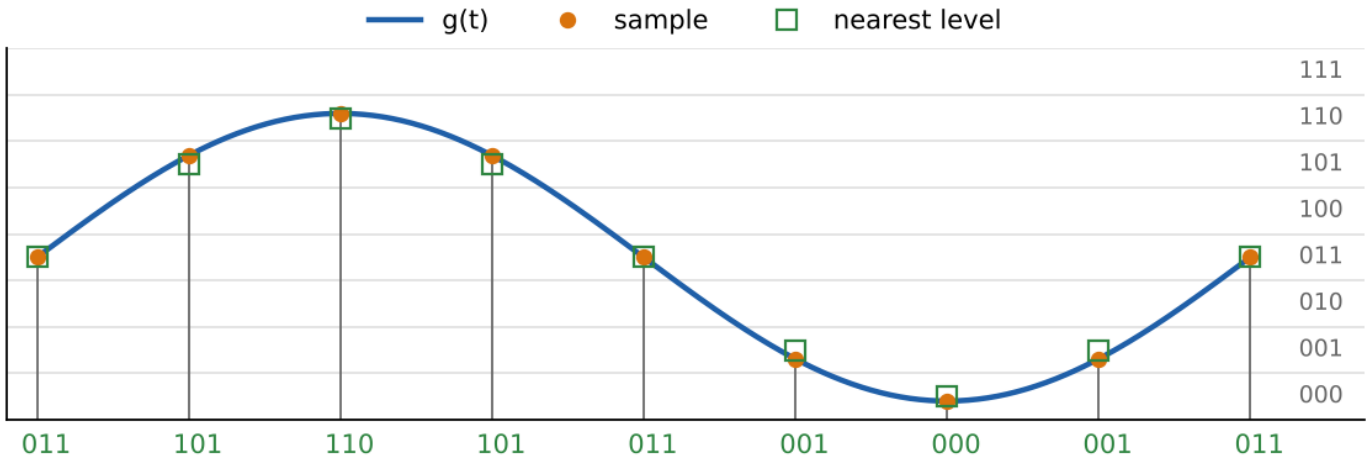


Figure 11: Sampling, quantizing and encoding

Reading the figure. The solid blue curve is $g(t)$. Each round orange dot is a sample, and each green square is the nearest of the 8 levels. The 3-bit code of each level is shown on the right, and the code sent for each sample is shown along the bottom. The small gap between a dot and its square is the quantization error.

2. Answer

PCM converts an analog signal into binary pulses, sends them, and rebuilds the signal at the receiver.

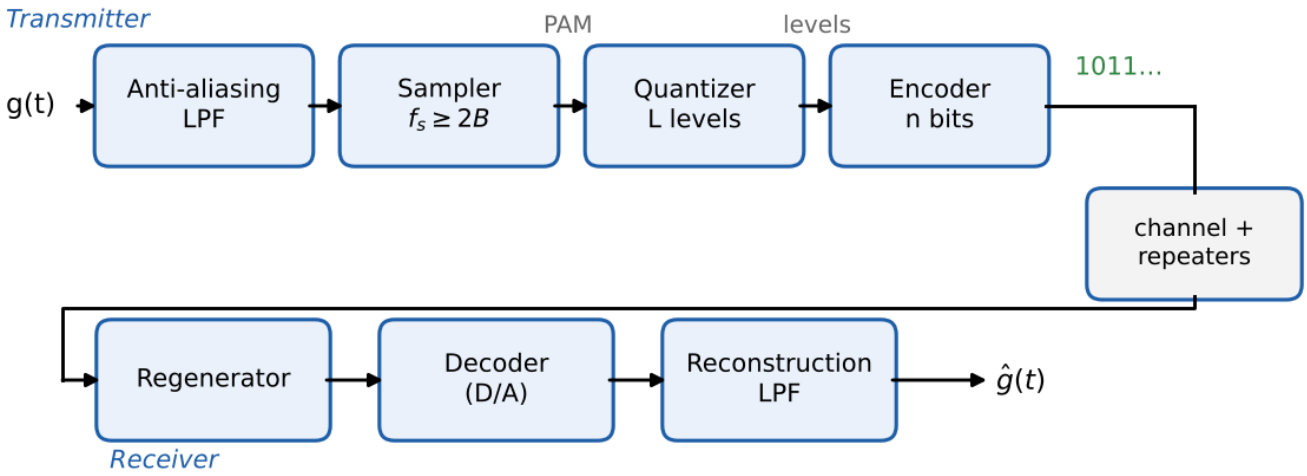


Figure 12: Block diagram of a PCM system

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

Reading the figure. The top row is the transmitter, from $g(t)$ to the bit stream. The bits pass through the channel and repeaters, and the bottom row is the receiver, which ends with the rebuilt $\hat{g}(t)$.

Transmitter:

1. **Anti-aliasing LPF:** limits the signal to bandwidth B, so that sampling does not cause aliasing.
2. **Sampler:** takes samples at $f_s \geq 2B$ and gives PAM pulses.
3. **Quantizer:** rounds each sample to one of L levels. The rounding error is **quantization noise**, the only noise PCM adds on purpose.
4. **Encoder:** turns each level into n bits ($L = 2^n$).

Channel: **repeaters** along the path detect each pulse and send a fresh one, so noise does not add up.

Receiver:

1. **Regenerator:** decides 0 or 1 and restores clean pulses.
2. **Decoder (D/A):** turns each n-bit word back into a level.
3. **Reconstruction LPF:** smooths the levels into the analog signal $\hat{g}(t)$.

Bit rate: $R_b = nf_s$. With $f_s = 8$ kHz and $n = 8$, as in telephony, $R_b = 64$ kbit/s.

3.(d) An analog signal having 4 kHz bandwidth is sampled at 1.25 times the Nyquist rate, and each sample is quantized into one of 256 equally likely level. Assuming the samples to be statistically independent: (i) What is the information rate of the source? (ii) Can the output of this source be transmitted without error over the AWGN channel with a bandwidth of 10 kHz and S/N ratio of 20 dB? (iii) Find S/N ratio required for error-free transmission of part ii. (iv) Find the bandwidth required for an AWGN channel for an error free transmission of output of this source if S/N ratio is 20 dB Marks: 10

1. Theory

1. The Nyquist rate (Core Idea)

To capture a signal of bandwidth B completely, it must be sampled at least $2B$ times per second. This minimum, $f_N = 2B$, is the **Nyquist rate**. It is proved in 4(c).

2. Information rate

Each sample is one symbol from a source. If there are L equally likely levels, each one has probability $1/L$, so the entropy (see 1(a)) is

$$H = \sum_{i=1}^{L} \frac{1}{L} \log_2 L = \log_2 L \quad \text{bits/sample}$$

The **information rate** is the number of samples per second times the information per sample: $R = f_s H$ bits/s. "Statistically independent" means that samples add no information about each other, so nothing is saved by looking back.

3. Channel capacity

An **AWGN channel** adds white Gaussian noise, like thermal noise. The **Shannon-Hartley law** gives its capacity C, the highest rate at which information can pass with as few errors as we like:

$$C = B \log_2 \left(1 + \frac{S}{N}\right)$$

- If $R \leq C$, error-free transmission is possible with suitable coding.
- If $R > C$, it is impossible, whatever the code.

S/N in this formula is a plain power ratio, so a value in dB is first converted: $S/N = 10^{\text{dB}/10}$.

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

2. Answer

Given:

- Signal bandwidth $B_m = 4$ kHz
- Sampling rate $= 1.25 \times$ Nyquist rate
- $L = 256$ equally likely levels, independent samples
- Channel: $B = 10$ kHz, $S/N = 20$ dB

(i) Information rate

$$f_N = 2B_m = 2 \times 4 = 8 \text{ kHz}$$

$$f_s = 1.25 \times 8 = 10 \text{ kHz}$$

$$H = \log_2 256 = 8 \text{ bits/sample}$$

$$R = f_s H = 10\,000 \times 8$$

$$\boxed{R = 80 \text{ kbit/s}}$$

(ii) Can it pass over the 10 kHz channel?

$$\frac{S}{N} = 10^{20/10} = 100$$

$$C = B \log_2 \left(1 + \frac{S}{N}\right) = 10\,000 \log_2 101 = 10\,000 \times 6.658$$

$$\boxed{C = 66.6 \text{ kbit/s}}$$

Since $R = 80$ kbit/s $> C = 66.6$ kbit/s, **error-free transmission is not possible** on this channel.

(iii) S/N needed on the 10 kHz channel

Set $C = R$:

$$10\,000 \log_2 \left(1 + \frac{S}{N}\right) = 80\,000 \;\Rightarrow\; \log_2 \left(1 + \frac{S}{N}\right) = 8$$

$$\frac{S}{N} = 2^8 - 1 = 255$$

$$\boxed{\frac{S}{N} = 255 = 24.1 \text{ dB}}$$

(iv) Bandwidth needed at 20 dB

Set $C = R$ with $S/N = 100$:

$$B = \frac{R}{\log_2(1 + S/N)} = \frac{80\,000}{\log_2 101} = \frac{80\,000}{6.658}$$

$$\boxed{B = 12.02 \text{ kHz}}$$

Final Answer: (i) 80 kbit/s; (ii) no, $C = 66.6$ kbit/s is less than 80 kbit/s; (iii) $S/N = 255$ (24.1 dB); (iv) 12.02 kHz.

3. Notes and Remarks

- These are limits. Shannon's law shows that the rate is possible, but not which code reaches it.
- Parts (iii) and (iv) show the trade-off between bandwidth and power: the channel can be fixed

with about 4 dB more signal power or 20% more bandwidth.

4. Final Concise Answer

(a) Slope overload: the signal's slope exceeds σf_s, and the staircase lags. Granular noise: the staircase hunts by $\pm\sigma$ around a flat signal. ADM increases the step on runs of equal bits and decreases it on alternating bits.

(b) Transmitter: summer, one-bit quantizer, accumulator in the feedback path. Receiver: accumulator and LPF.

(c) LPF, sampler, quantizer, encoder; channel with repeaters; regenerator, decoder, LPF. $R_b = nf_s$.

(d) $R = 80$ kbit/s; $C = 66.6$ kbit/s, so no; $S/N = 255$ (24.1 dB); $B = 12.02$ kHz.

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

4. (a) With appropriate block diagram, describe the operation of superheterodyne receiver. Marks: 7
   (b) Explain how the message signal is reconstructed from VSB signal. Marks: 7
   (c) State and prove Nyquist sampling theorem. Also find the interpolation formula for the reconstruction of analog signals from its uniform samples. Marks: 7
   (d) State Carson's rule and its limitations. Marks: 4

4.(a) With appropriate block diagram, describe the operation of superheterodyne receiver. Marks: 7

1. Theory

1. The problem with a simple receiver (Core Idea)

A radio receiver must pick one station out of many and amplify it strongly. A filter with very high gain and sharp edges is hard to build when it must also be **tunable** over a wide range of frequencies. Each station would need the filter to be retuned perfectly.

The **superheterodyne** idea is clever: do not move the filter to the station. Move the station to the filter. Every station is shifted down to one fixed **intermediate frequency (IF)**, where one fixed, sharp, high-gain amplifier does all the hard work.

2. How a mixer shifts frequency

A **mixer** multiplies two signals. Since $2\cos A\cos B = \cos(A-B)+\cos(A+B)$, multiplying a station at f_s by a local tone at f_{LO} gives the difference and the sum frequencies. The IF filter keeps the difference, and the message moves with it. For AM radio $f_{IF} = 455$ kHz.

2. Answer

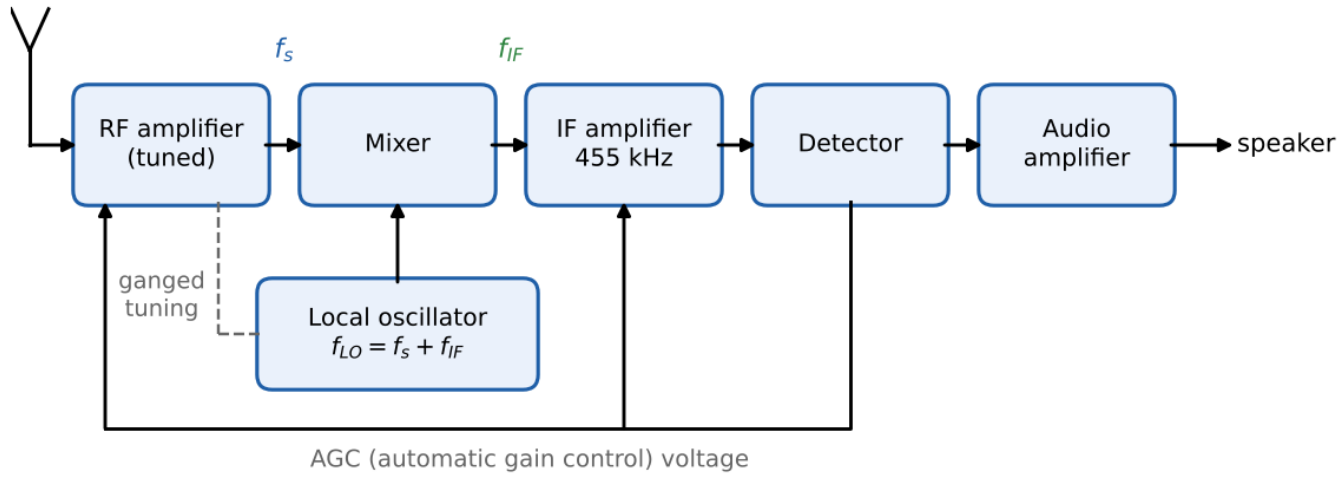


Figure 13: Block diagram of a superheterodyne receiver

Reading the figure. The signal passes from the antenna along the top row to the speaker. The local oscillator feeds the mixer and is tuned together with the RF stage (dashed "ganged tuning" line). The AGC line runs from the detector back to the RF and IF amplifiers.

The superheterodyne receiver converts every received station to one fixed intermediate frequency before amplifying and detecting it.

Operation:

1. **RF amplifier (tuned):** selects the wanted band around f_s, gives some gain and rejects the image frequency.
2. **Local oscillator:** tuned together with the RF stage (ganged), so that it is always above the

station by f_{IF}:

$$f_{LO} = f_s + f_{IF}$$

3. **Mixer:** multiplies the two and gives $f_{LO} - f_s = f_{IF}$ (and the unwanted sum, which is filtered out). The message is unchanged, but now sits at 455 kHz.
4. **IF amplifier:** fixed-tuned, sharp filters and high gain. It gives most of the receiver's **selectivity** and **sensitivity**.
5. **Detector:** recovers the message (an envelope detector for AM).
6. **Audio amplifier:** raises the message to drive the **speaker**.
7. **AGC (automatic gain control):** a dc voltage from the detector reduces the RF and IF gain on strong stations, so the output stays steady.

Example

for a station at $f_s = 1000$ kHz, $f_{LO} = 1000 + 455 = 1455$ kHz.

Image frequency: the mixer output depends only on the *difference*, so a station on the other side of the oscillator also gives 455 kHz:

$$f_{si} = f_s + 2f_{IF}$$

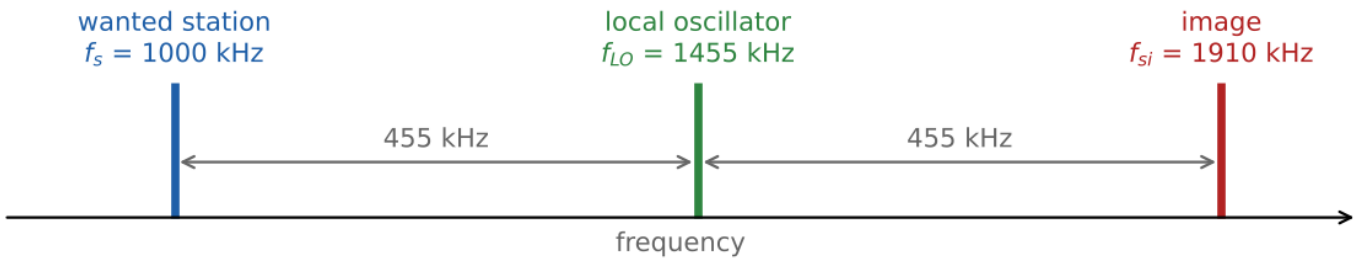


Figure 14: The image frequency

Reading the figure. The wanted station at 1000 kHz and the image at 1910 kHz are both 455 kHz from the oscillator at 1455 kHz. The IF stage cannot tell them apart, so the RF stage must remove the image before the mixer.

Advantages: high and uniform gain and selectivity across the band, with one fixed IF section. **Drawback:** image interference, and more circuits than a simple receiver.

3. Notes and Remarks

- The oscillator is put above the station because the required tuning ratio is then small. For the AM band (540 to 1600 kHz), it covers 995 to 2055 kHz (ratio about 2). Below the station, it would need 85 to 1145 kHz (ratio about 13), which is hard to tune.
- FM broadcast receivers use the same structure, with $f_{IF} = 10.7$ MHz and an FM detector.

4.(b) Explain how the message signal is reconstructed from VSB signal. Marks: 7

1. Theory

1. What is VSB? (Core Idea)

An AM or DSB signal has two sidebands that carry the same information, so one is a waste of bandwidth. **SSB** removes one sideband, but that needs a filter with a nearly vertical edge, which cannot be built when the message has energy near 0 Hz. **Vestigial sideband (VSB)** is the compromise: it keeps one sideband and a small **vestige** (trace) of the other, using a filter with a gentle slope. Its bandwidth is only a little more than B. Broadcast television used it.

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

2. The trick that makes it work

The filter's slope cuts into the signal around f_c, so the message seems to be damaged there. But the slope is shaped with **odd symmetry** about f_c. After demodulation, the part lost from the main sideband is exactly filled in by the vestige of the other one.

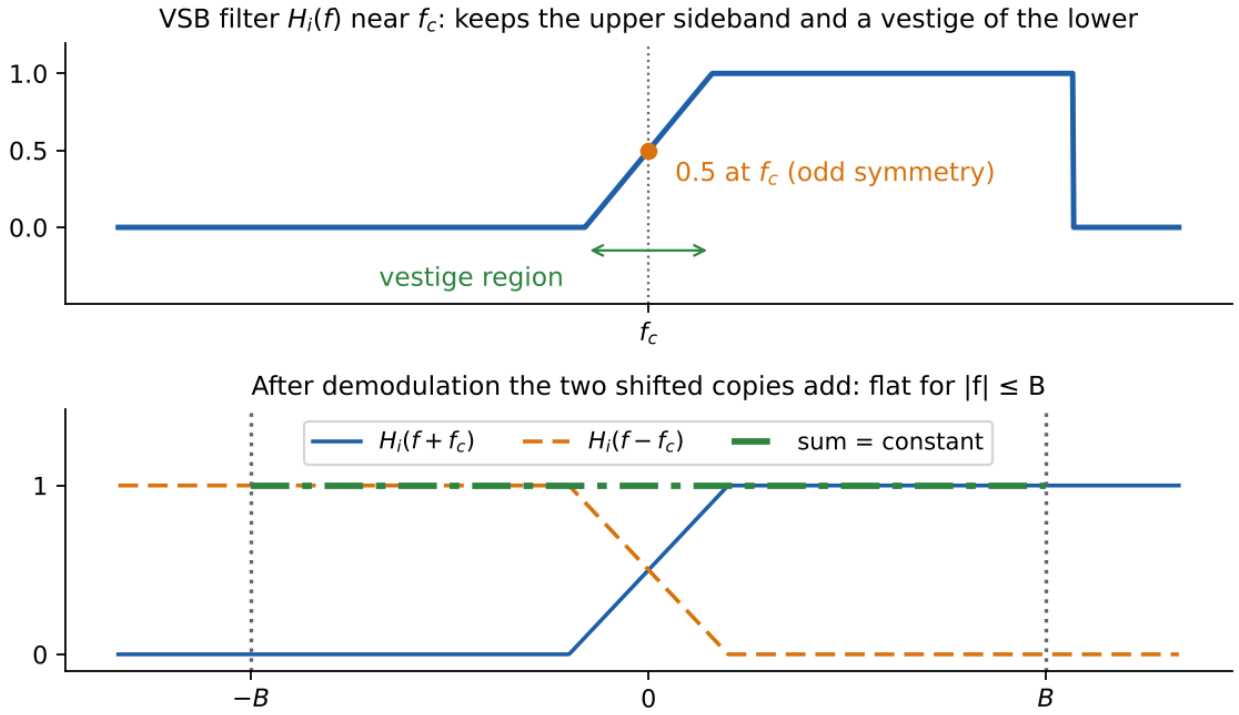


Figure 15: VSB filter and how the two shifted copies add

Reading the figure. Top: the filter passes the upper sideband fully, and its slope crosses 0.5 exactly at f_c. Bottom: demodulation shifts the filter by $+f_c$ (solid blue) and $-f_c$ (dashed orange). Their two slopes are mirror images, so the sum (dash-dot green) stays flat across $|f| \le B$.

2. Answer

A VSB signal is demodulated **coherently**: multiplying by the carrier and low-pass filtering recovers $m(t)$, provided the filters meet the condition derived below.

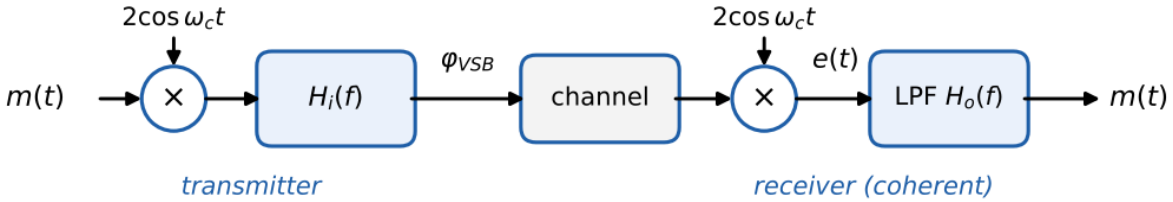


Figure 16: VSB transmitter and receiver

Reading the figure. The transmitter makes DSB-SC and shapes it with $H_i(f)$. The receiver multiplies by the same carrier and then filters with $H_o(f)$.

Step 1: The transmitted spectrum

The product $2m(t)\cos\omega_c t$ has spectrum $M(f+f_c)+M(f-f_c)$. After the filter,

$$\Phi_{VSB}(f) = [M(f+f_c)+M(f-f_c)]H_i(f)$$

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

Step 2: After the receiver's multiplier

Since $2\cos\omega_c t = e^{j\omega_c t} + e^{-j\omega_c t}$, multiplying by it shifts the spectrum once to the left and once to the right by f_c:

$$E(f) = \Phi_{VSB}(f + f_c) + \Phi_{VSB}(f - f_c)$$

Replace f by $f + f_c$ and by $f - f_c$ in $\Phi_{VSB}(f)$:

$$\Phi_{VSB}(f + f_c) = [M(f + 2f_c) + M(f)]\, H_i(f + f_c)$$

$$\Phi_{VSB}(f - f_c) = [M(f) + M(f - 2f_c)]\, H_i(f - f_c)$$

Add the two, and collect the two $M(f)$ terms:

$$E(f) = M(f)[H_i(f + f_c) + H_i(f - f_c)] + M(f + 2f_c)H_i(f + f_c) + M(f - 2f_c)H_i(f - f_c)$$

Step 3: After the low-pass filter

The last two terms sit around $\pm 2f_c$, and the LPF removes them:

$$E_o(f) = M(f)[H_i(f + f_c) + H_i(f - f_c)]H_o(f)$$

Step 4: The condition for perfect recovery

For $E_o(f) = M(f)$, the factor multiplying $M(f)$ must equal 1:

$$[H_i(f + f_c) + H_i(f - f_c)]H_o(f) = 1$$

so, over the message band,

$$\boxed{H_o(f) = \frac{1}{H_i(f + f_c) + H_i(f - f_c)}, \quad |f| \le B}$$

Key Points:

- If H_i has odd symmetry about f_c, the sum in the denominator is a constant. H_o is then a plain LPF.
- With a large carrier added (VSB + C, as in TV), a simple envelope detector can be used instead.

4.(c) State and prove Nyquist sampling theorem. Also find the interpolation formula for the reconstruction of analog signals from its uniform samples. Marks: 7

1. Theory

1. What is sampling? (Core Idea)

Sampling keeps the value of $g(t)$ only at instants T_s apart. It seems that the values in between are lost forever. The surprising result is that nothing is lost, if the signal's frequencies are limited and the samples are close enough together. A smooth curve cannot wiggle much between close points.

2. Sampling as multiplication by impulses

Mathematically, sampling multiplies $g(t)$ by a train of unit impulses $\delta_{T_s}(t)$, one every T_s seconds. This gives

$$\bar{g}(t) = g(t)\delta_{T_s}(t) = \sum_n g(nT_s)\delta(t - nT_s)$$

3. Two tools

- **Fourier series:** any periodic signal is a sum of harmonics. An impulse train of period T_s contains every harmonic of $f_s = 1/T_s$ equally:

$$\delta_{T_s}(t) = \frac{1}{T_s}\sum_{n=-\infty}^{\infty} e^{jn2\pi f_s t}$$

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

- **Frequency shifting:** multiplying by $e^{j2\pi f_0 t}$ moves a spectrum by f_0, so $G(f)$ becomes $G(f - f_0)$.

2. Answer

Statement: a signal bandlimited to B Hz (with no spectral content above B) is completely determined by its samples, and can be recovered from them exactly, if the sampling rate satisfies

$$\boxed{f_s \geq 2B}$$

The minimum rate $2B$ is the **Nyquist rate**, and $1/2B$ is the Nyquist interval.

Proof.

Step 1: Write sampling as a multiplication. Let $g(t)$ have spectrum $G(f)$ with $G(f) = 0$ for $|f| > B$. Taking a sample every T_s seconds is the same as multiplying $g(t)$ by a train of unit impulses, $\delta_{T_s}(t) = \sum_n \delta(t - nT_s)$:

$$\bar{g}(t) = g(t)\, \delta_{T_s}(t)$$

Step 2: Fourier series of the impulse train. The train is periodic with period T_s, so it has a Fourier series with frequency $f_s = 1/T_s$:

$$\delta_{T_s}(t) = \sum_{n=-\infty}^{\infty} D_n\, e^{jn2\pi f_s t}, \qquad D_n = \frac{1}{T_s} \int_{-T_s/2}^{T_s/2} \delta(t)\, e^{-jn2\pi f_s t}\, dt$$

Only the impulse at $t = 0$ lies inside the limits, and there the exponential equals 1, so $D_n = 1/T_s$ for every n:

$$\delta_{T_s}(t) = \frac{1}{T_s} \sum_{n=-\infty}^{\infty} e^{jn2\pi f_s t}$$

Step 3: Put the series into Step 1.

$$\bar{g}(t) = \frac{1}{T_s} \sum_{n=-\infty}^{\infty} g(t) e^{jn2\pi f_s t}$$

Step 4: Take the Fourier transform of each term. The frequency-shift property says $g(t)e^{j2\pi f_0 t} \Longleftrightarrow G(f - f_0)$. Here $f_0 = nf_s$, so

$$\bar{G}(f) = \frac{1}{T_s} \sum_{n=-\infty}^{\infty} G(f - nf_s)$$

Step 5: Read the spectrum. The sampled spectrum is $G(f)$, scaled by $1/T_s$, repeated every f_s Hz. Each copy spans $2B$, from $-B$ to $+B$ around its centre. Neighbouring centres are f_s apart, so the copies do not overlap if

$$f_s \geq 2B$$

Step 6: Recover the signal. An ideal LPF of cut-off B and gain T_s passes only the $n = 0$ copy, $\frac{1}{T_s}G(f)$, and multiplies it by T_s, which leaves $G(f)$ itself. So $g(t)$ is recovered exactly, which proves the theorem.

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

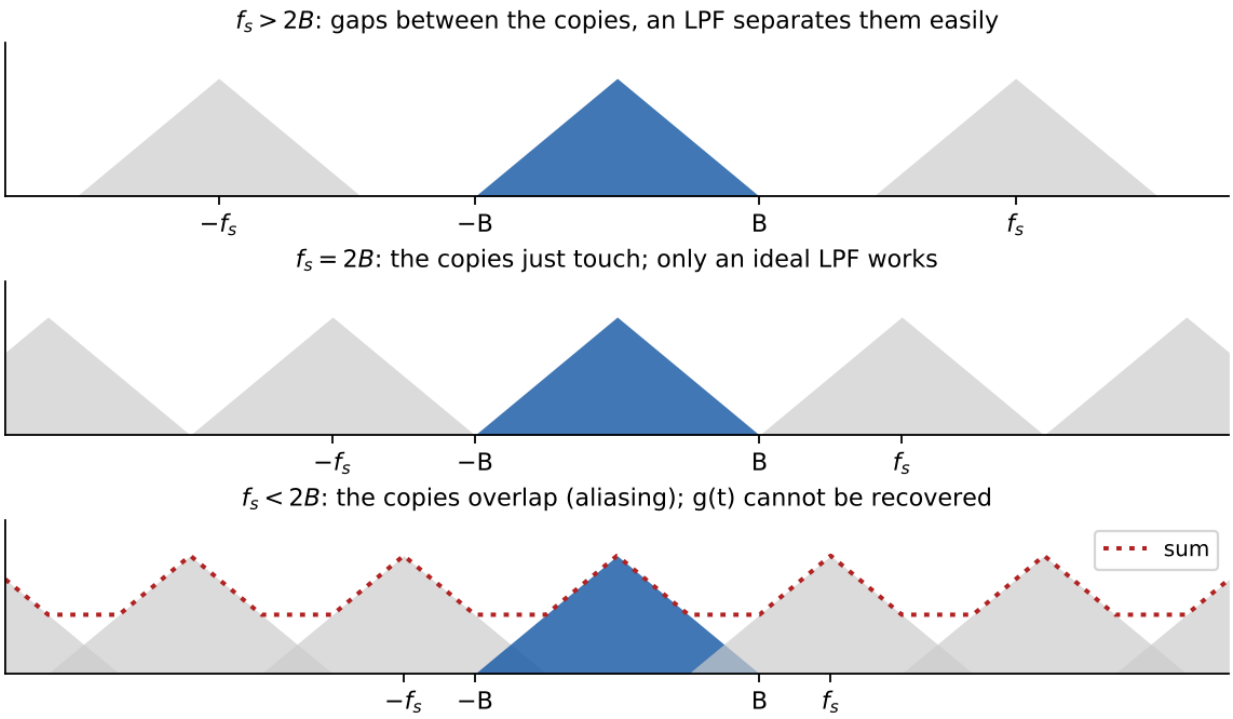


Figure 17: Spectrum of a sampled signal for three sampling rates

Reading the figure. The dark triangle is the original spectrum and the pale triangles are its copies. Top: copies are well apart. Middle: at exactly $2B$ they just touch. Bottom: below $2B$ they overlap, and the dotted red sum no longer shows the dark triangle. This overlap is **aliasing**.

Interpolation formula.

Step 1: Impulse response of the LPF. Take $f_s = 2B$, so that $T_s = 1/2B$. The LPF has $H(f) = T_s$ for $|f| \le B$ and 0 elsewhere. Its impulse response is the inverse Fourier transform:

$$h(t) = \int_{-B}^{B} T_s\, e^{j2\pi ft}\, df = T_s\, \frac{e^{j2\pi Bt} - e^{-j2\pi Bt}}{j2\pi t} = T_s\, \frac{\sin(2\pi Bt)}{\pi t}$$

Multiply the top and bottom by $2B$, and write $\operatorname{sinc} x = \sin x/x$:

$$h(t) = 2BT_s\, \frac{\sin(2\pi Bt)}{2\pi Bt} = 2BT_s \operatorname{sinc}(2\pi Bt) = \operatorname{sinc}(2\pi Bt)$$

since $2BT_s = 1$.

Step 2: Add the outputs. Each impulse $g(kT_s)\delta(t - kT_s)$ produces $g(kT_s)h(t - kT_s)$ at the filter's output. Adding all of them,

$$g(t) = \sum_k g(kT_s)\, h(t - kT_s)$$

Step 3: Put in $h(t)$. With $2\pi BkT_s = 2\pi Bk/(2B) = k\pi$:

$$\boxed{g(t) = \sum_k g(kT_s) \operatorname{sinc}[2\pi B(t - kT_s)] = \sum_k g(kT_s) \operatorname{sinc}(2\pi Bt - k\pi)}$$

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

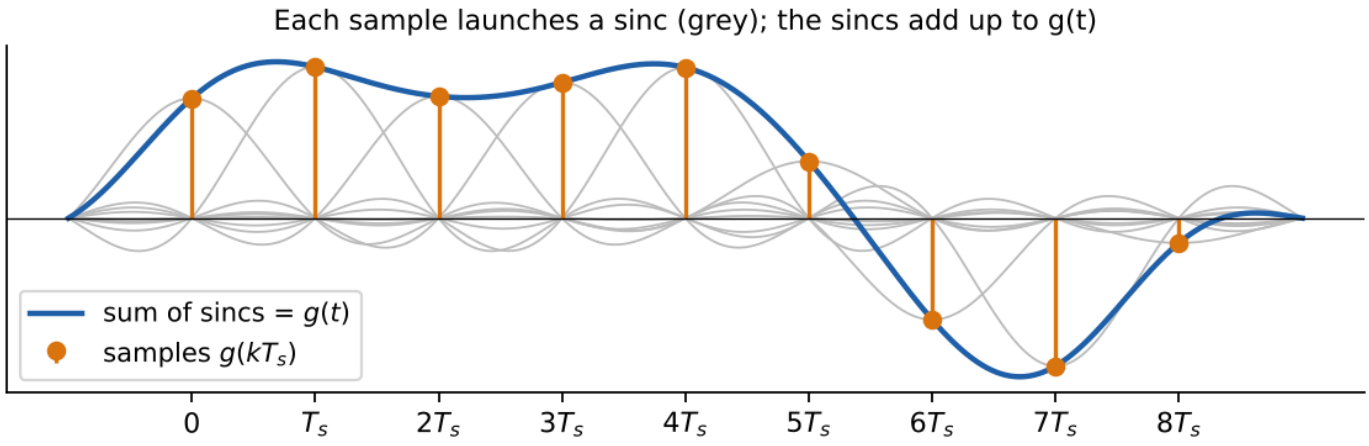


Figure 18: Reconstruction from samples

Reading the figure. Each round orange sample starts one thin grey sinc pulse. A sinc is 1 at its own sample and 0 at every other sample instant, so at each instant only one pulse counts. Between the instants the pulses add up to the thick solid blue curve, $g(t)$.

3. Notes and Remarks

- In practice f_s is kept above $2B$. The gap between copies (the **guard band**) allows a real filter with a gradual slope.
- For $f_s > 2B$ with an LPF of cut-off f_0 ($B \le f_0 \le f_s - B$) and gain T_s, $h(t) = 2f_0T_s\,\mathrm{sinc}(2\pi f_0 t)$, and the same sum holds.

4.(d) State Carson's rule and its limitations. Marks: 4

1. Theory

1. Why is FM's bandwidth a problem? (Core Idea)

A single-tone FM wave does not have just two side frequencies, as AM does. In theory it has infinitely many, at $f_c \pm nf_m$, with sizes given by Bessel functions $J_n(\beta)$. But far from the carrier they become tiny, so a practical bandwidth can be chosen.

2. Two simple limits

- For small β (narrowband FM), only the first side frequencies count, so $B_T \approx 2f_m$.
- For large β (wideband FM), the frequency sweeps slowly across $\pm\Delta f$, so $B_T \approx 2\Delta f$.

Carson's rule is one formula that covers both limits.

2. Answer

Carson's rule: the bandwidth of an FM signal is approximately twice the sum of the frequency deviation and the highest modulating frequency:

$$\boxed{B_T \approx 2(\Delta f + f_m) = 2(\beta + 1)f_m}$$

Example

FM broadcast has $\Delta f = 75$ kHz and $f_m = 15$ kHz, so $B_T \approx 2(75 + 15) = 180$ kHz.

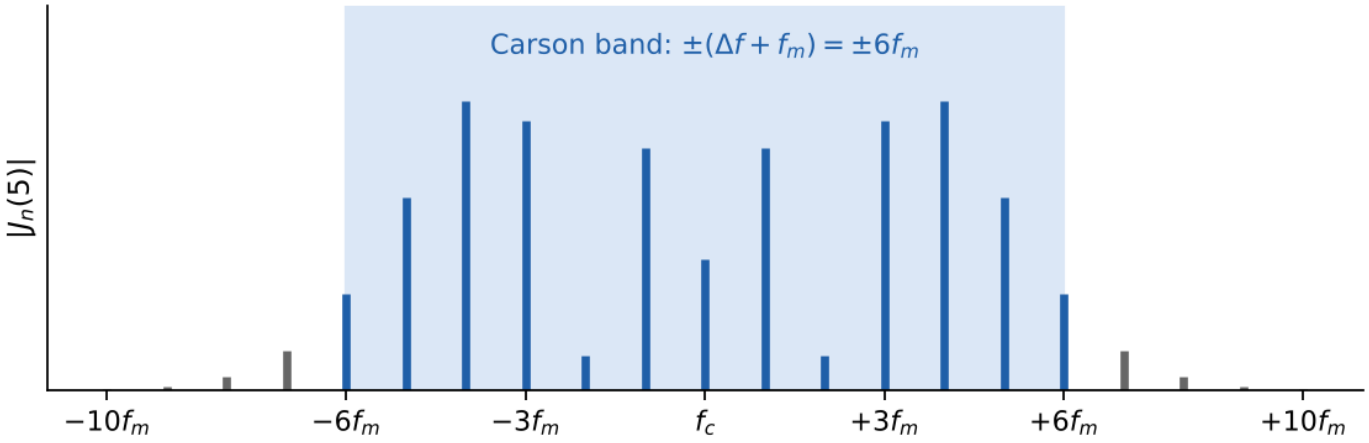


Figure 19: FM spectrum for a modulation index of 5

Reading the figure. For $\beta = 5$, the shaded Carson band covers $\pm 6 f_m$. It holds all the large lines (99.4% of the power). The grey lines outside it are small, but they are not zero.

Limitations:

1. It is an **approximation**. FM's true bandwidth is infinite, and the rule leaves out the small side frequencies outside the band.
2. It **underestimates** the bandwidth for intermediate values of β (about 2 to 10). Designers then use a larger value, such as $2(\Delta f + 2 f_m)$, which gives 210 kHz for FM broadcast.
3. It was built for a **single tone**. For a real message, Δf and f_m are worst-case values that rarely occur together, so the result is only an estimate.
4. It does not say how much distortion the cut-off causes, so it cannot be used where a precise distortion limit is needed.

3. Final Concise Answer

(a) RF amplifier, local oscillator ($f_{LO} = f_s + f_{IF}$), mixer, fixed IF amplifier at 455 kHz, detector, audio amplifier, AGC. Image frequency $f_{si} = f_s + 2 f_{IF}$.

(b) Multiply by $2\cos\omega_c t$ and low-pass filter. $E_o(f) = M(f)[H_i(f + f_c) + H_i(f - f_c)]H_o(f)$, so $H_o(f) = 1/[H_i(f + f_c) + H_i(f - f_c)]$ for $|f| \le B$.

(c) $f_s \ge 2B$; $\bar{G}(f) = (1/T_s)\sum G(f - n f_s)$, so the copies do not overlap. $g(t) = \sum_k g(kT_s)\,\mathrm{sinc}(2\pi B t - k\pi)$.

(d) $B_T \approx 2(\Delta f + f_m)$. It is approximate, underestimates at intermediate β, is built for one tone, and does not give the distortion.

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

5. (a) Write down the comparison between TDMA and CDMA. Marks: 5

(b) A voice grade telephone channel has a bandwidth of 3400 Hz. If the signal to noise ratio (SNR) on the channel is 30 dB, determine the capacity of the channel. If the above channel is to be used to transmit 4.8 kbps of data, determine the minimum SNR required on the channel. Marks: 6

(c) It is desired to set up a central station for simultaneous monitoring of the electrocardiograms (ECGs) of 10 hospital patients. The data from the 10 patents [*sic*: should be "patients"] are brought to a processing center over wires and are sampled, quantized, binary-coded, and time-division-multiplexed. The multiplexed data are now transmitted to the monitoring station. The ECG signal bandwidth is 100 Hz. The maximum acceptable error in sample amplitude is 0.25% of the peak signal amplitude. The sampling rate must be at least twice the Nyquist rate. Determine the minimum cable bandwidth needed to transmit these multiplexed data. Marks: 7

(d) Consider a message signal m(t) with the spectrum shown in Fig. 1. The message bandwidth W = 1 kHz. This signal is applied to a product modulator, together with a carrier wave $A_c \cos(2\pi f_c t)$, producing the DSBSC modulated wave s(t). This modulated wave is next applied to a coherent detector. Assuming perfect synchronism between the carrier waves in the modulator and detector, determine the spectrum of the detector output when:

(i) the carrier frequency $f_c = 1.25$ kHz and
(ii) the carrier frequency $f_c = 0.75$ kHz.

What is the lowest carrier frequency for which each component of the modulated wave s(t) is uniquely determined by m(t)? Marks: 7

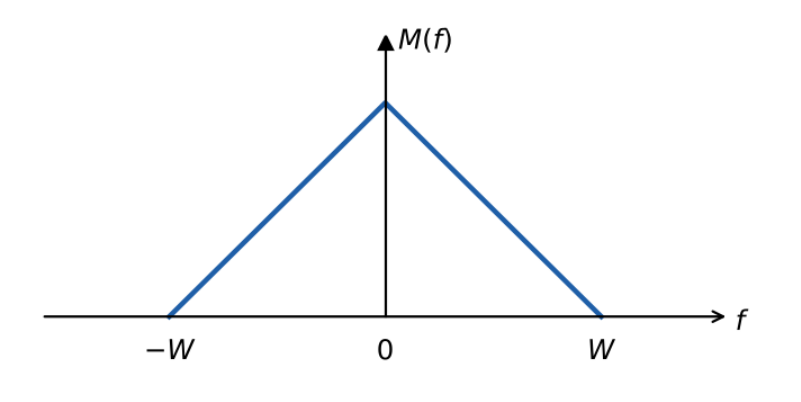


Figure 20: Fig. 1 of the paper (redrawn): the message spectrum M(f)

5.(a) Write down the comparison between TDMA and CDMA. Marks: 5

1. Theory

1. Multiple access again (Core Idea)

Many users must share one radio channel without disturbing each other (see 2(a)). Imagine a room of people who must all talk. In **TDMA** they take turns speaking. In **CDMA** they all speak at once, but each pair uses a different language, so a listener hears its own language clearly and the rest as background murmur.

2. How the two methods work

- **Time division multiple access (TDMA):** time is divided into repeating frames, and each frame into slots. Each user sends only in its own slot, as a short burst, using the whole band. Everyone must keep exact time.
- **Code division multiple access (CDMA):** each user multiplies its data by a fast, unique **code**. All users send at the same time, in the same wide band. The receiver multiplies by the wanted

code: that user's data comes out, and the others stay as low-level noise.

2. Answer

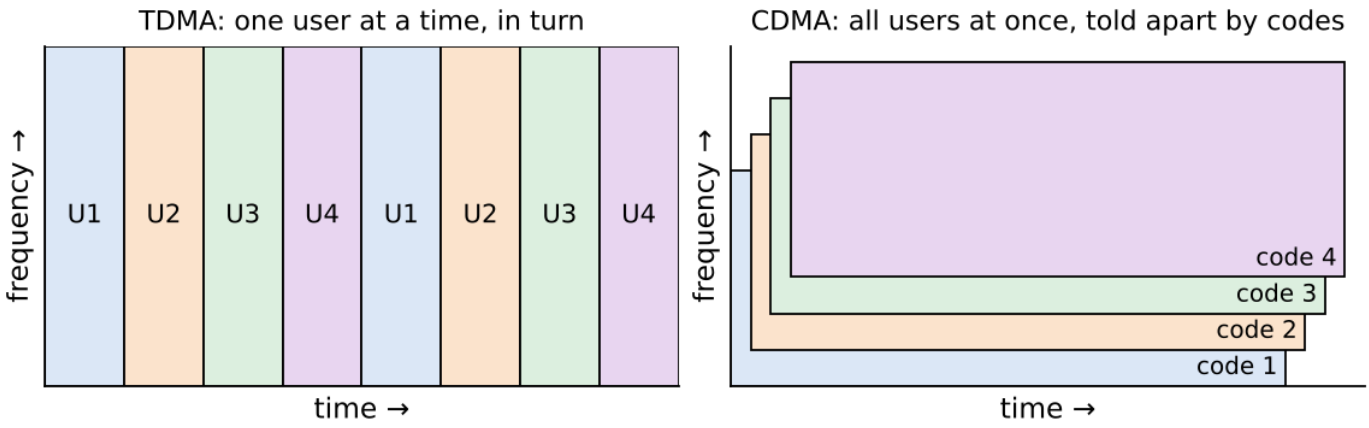


Figure 21: TDMA and CDMA in time and frequency

Reading the figure. Left: in TDMA, users U1 to U4 use the full band in turn, one slot at a time. Right: in CDMA, all four users occupy all of the time and frequency together, and only their codes separate them.

	TDMA	CDMA
What separates users	time slots	unique codes
Band and time used	whole band, in its own slot only	whole band, all the time
Transmission	bursts	continuous
Synchronization	exact timing and guard times are essential	code timing is needed at the receiver; no shared time slots
Capacity	hard limit: fixed number of slots	soft limit: each new user adds a little noise
Interference	little between users, when timing is good	other users appear as noise, so power control is essential
Bandwidth of each signal	that of the data burst	spread far wider than the data
Security and jamming	low, without encryption	high, since a signal looks like noise without its code
Examples	GSM (with FDMA), digital satellite links	IS-95, CDMA2000, GPS

Table 5: TDMA versus CDMA

5.(b) A voice grade telephone channel has a bandwidth of 3400 Hz. If the signal to noise ratio (SNR) on the channel is 30 dB, determine the capacity of the channel. If the above channel is to be used to transmit 4.8 kbps of data, determine the minimum SNR required on the channel. Marks: 6

1. Theory

1. Decibels (Core Idea)

The signal-to-noise ratio is often very large, so it is written on a log scale: $\mathrm{SNR}_{\mathrm{dB}} = 10 \log_{10} \mathrm{SNR}$. Every 10 dB is a factor of 10. So 30 dB is a power ratio of 1000.

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

2. Shannon capacity

The largest error-free rate of a noisy channel is

$$C = B \log_2(1 + \text{SNR})$$

Here B is the bandwidth in Hz, and the SNR is a plain ratio. **Bandwidth** sets how many symbols can be sent per second. **SNR** sets how many different levels can be told apart in each symbol.

3. Minimum SNR for a required rate

The channel can carry a rate R only if $R \le C$. At the limit $R = C$, solving for the SNR gives

$$\text{SNR}_{min} = 2^{R/B} - 1$$

2. Answer

Given:

- Bandwidth $B = 3400$ Hz
- SNR $= 30$ dB
- Data rate $R = 4.8$ kbps $= 4800$ bit/s

Step 1: Capacity

$$\text{SNR} = 10^{30/10} = 1000$$

$$C = 3400 \log_2(1 + 1000) = 3400 \times 9.967$$

$$\boxed{C = 33.89 \text{ kbit/s}}$$

Step 2: Minimum SNR for 4.8 kbps

$$\frac{R}{B} = \frac{4800}{3400} = 1.412$$

$$\text{SNR}_{min} = 2^{1.412} - 1 = 2.661 - 1$$

$$\boxed{\text{SNR}_{min} = 1.66 = 2.2 \text{ dB}}$$

Final Answer: $C = 33.89$ kbit/s; minimum SNR 1.66 (2.2 dB).

5.(c) It is desired to set up a central station for simultaneous monitoring of the electrocardiograms (ECGs) of 10 hospital patients. The data from the 10 patents [*sic*: should be "patients"] **are brought to a processing center over wires and are sampled, quantized, binary-coded, and time-division-multiplexed. The multiplexed data are now transmitted to the monitoring station. The ECG signal bandwidth is 100 Hz. The maximum acceptable error in sample amplitude is 0.25% of the peak signal amplitude. The sampling rate must be at least twice the Nyquist rate. Determine the minimum cable bandwidth needed to transmit these multiplexed data. Marks: 7**

1. Theory

1. The plan (Core Idea)

Each patient's analog ECG must become bits, the bits of all 10 patients must share one cable in turn, and the cable must carry the total rate. So we find four things in order: samples per second, bits per sample, total bits per second and, finally, the bandwidth.

2. Sampling rate

The Nyquist rate of a signal of bandwidth B is $2B$ (see 4(c)).

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

3. Quantization error

A signal between $-m_p$ and $+m_p$ is divided into L levels, so one step is

$$\Delta = \frac{2m_p}{L}$$

A sample is rounded to the nearest level, so the largest error is half a step:

$$e_{max} = \frac{\Delta}{2} = \frac{m_p}{L}$$

More levels mean less error, but more bits. With n bits, $L = 2^n$, and L must be a power of 2.

4. Time division multiplexing

TDM gives each input a turn on the same line. In each round, one n-bit word is sent for each of the N channels, and there are f_s rounds per second:

$$R_b = N f_s n$$

5. Bandwidth of a binary stream

Nyquist's result for pulses is that a bandwidth B_T carries at most $2B_T$ pulses per second without pulses disturbing each other. So the minimum bandwidth is $B_T = R_b/2$.

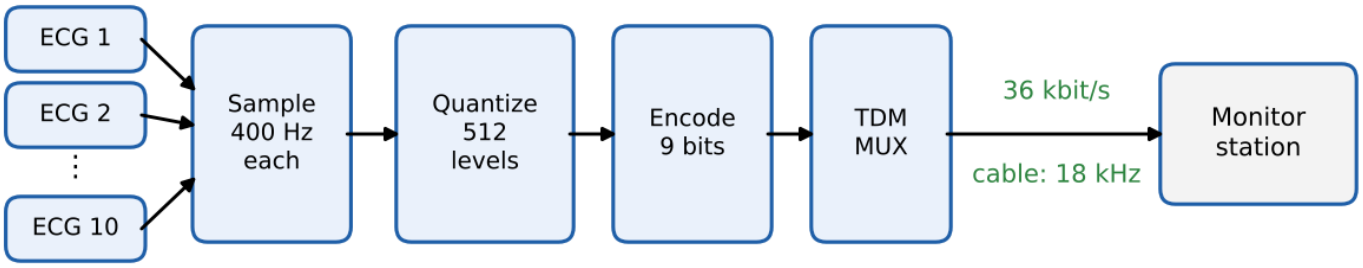


Figure 22: The ECG monitoring chain

Reading the figure. The ten ECG signals pass through sampling, quantizing and encoding, the TDM multiplexer combines them, and one cable takes the result to the monitoring station. The labels on the cable are the results of the answer below.

2. Answer

Note on the paper

"10 patents" in the second sentence is a misprint for "10 patients".

Given:

- Number of channels $N = 10$
- ECG bandwidth $B = 100$ Hz
- Maximum error $= 0.25\% = 0.0025\, m_p$
- Sampling rate at least $2\times$ the Nyquist rate

Step 1: Sampling rate

$$f_N = 2B = 200 \text{ Hz}, \qquad f_s = 2f_N = 400 \text{ Hz}$$

Step 2: Number of bits

The error is at most half a step:

$$\frac{m_p}{L} \le 0.0025\, m_p \;\Rightarrow\; L \ge 400$$

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

The next power of 2 is $L = 512 = 2^9$, so

$$\boxed{n = 9 \text{ bits/sample}}$$

Step 3: Bit rate

$$R_b = N f_s n = 10 \times 400 \times 9 = 36\,000 \text{ bit/s}$$

Step 4: Minimum cable bandwidth

$$B_T = \frac{R_b}{2} = \frac{36\,000}{2}$$

$$\boxed{B_T = 18 \text{ kHz}}$$

Final Answer: the cable needs a minimum bandwidth of 18 kHz, for a total rate of 36 kbit/s.

3. Notes and Remarks

- A common slip is to take a full step as the error, which gives $L \geq 800$ and $n = 10$. Rounding to the *nearest* level gives half a step.
- With $L = 512$ the real error limit is $100/512 = 0.195\%$, within the 0.25% allowed.
- Framing bits are ignored. Real TDM adds a few, which raises the rate slightly.
- The same system is also solved in 6(b) of the 2021-22 paper.

5.(d) Consider a message signal m(t) with the spectrum shown in Fig. 1. The message bandwidth W = 1 kHz. This signal is applied to a product modulator, together with a carrier wave $A_c \cos(2\pi f_c t)$, producing the DSBSC modulated wave s(t). This modulated wave is next applied to a coherent detector. Assuming perfect synchronism between the carrier waves in the modulator and detector, determine the spectrum of the detector output when: (i) the carrier frequency $f_c = 1.25$ kHz and (ii) the carrier frequency $f_c = 0.75$ kHz. What is the lowest carrier frequency for which each component of the modulated wave s(t) is uniquely determined by m(t)? Marks: 7

1. Theory

1. DSB-SC modulation (Core Idea)

A **product modulator** simply multiplies the message by the carrier:

$$s(t) = A_c m(t) \cos(2\pi f_c t)$$

This is **double-sideband suppressed-carrier (DSB-SC)**. There is no separate carrier line, only the two sidebands. Since $\cos(2\pi f_c t) = \frac{1}{2}(e^{j2\pi f_c t} + e^{-j2\pi f_c t})$, and a complex exponential shifts a spectrum,

$$S(f) = \frac{A_c}{2}[M(f - f_c) + M(f + f_c)]$$

The message spectrum appears twice, centred at $+f_c$ and $-f_c$, each with half the height.

2. Coherent detection

The **coherent detector** multiplies the received wave by a local copy of the carrier, then low-pass filters. With a perfectly synchronized local carrier $\cos(2\pi f_c t)$, and $\cos^2 x = \frac{1}{2}(1 + \cos 2x)$,

$$v(t) = s(t)\cos(2\pi f_c t) = \frac{A_c}{2} m(t) + \frac{A_c}{2} m(t)\cos(4\pi f_c t)$$

The first term is the message. The second is the message moved up to $2f_c$. In frequency,

$$V(f) = \frac{A_c}{2} M(f) + \frac{A_c}{4}[M(f - 2f_c) + M(f + 2f_c)]$$

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

3. When does it fail?

The LPF keeps $|f| \le W$. It separates the wanted term from the copy at $2f_c$ only if they do not overlap. The copy starts at $2f_c - W$, so we need $2f_c - W \ge W$, or

$$f_c \ge W$$

So the carrier must be at least as high as the top frequency of the message.

2. Answer

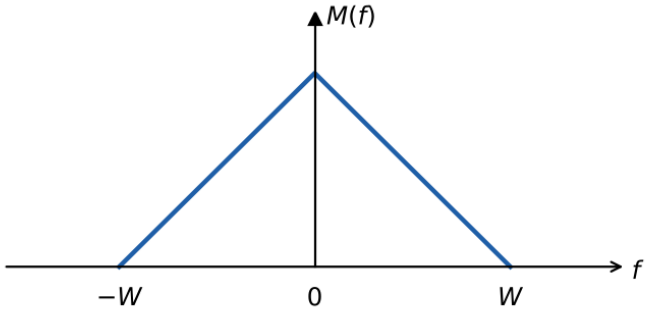


Figure 23: Repeated from the question: Fig. 1 of the paper (redrawn)

Given: $M(f)$ is a triangle of height $M_0 = M(0)$ on $|f| \le W$, with $W = 1$ kHz; synchronism is perfect. **Assumption:** the local carrier is $\cos(2\pi f_c t)$ and the detector's LPF has cut-off W. Then

$$S(f) = \frac{A_c}{2}[M(f - f_c) + M(f + f_c)], \qquad V(f) = \frac{A_c}{2}M(f) + \frac{A_c}{4}[M(f - 2f_c) + M(f + 2f_c)]$$

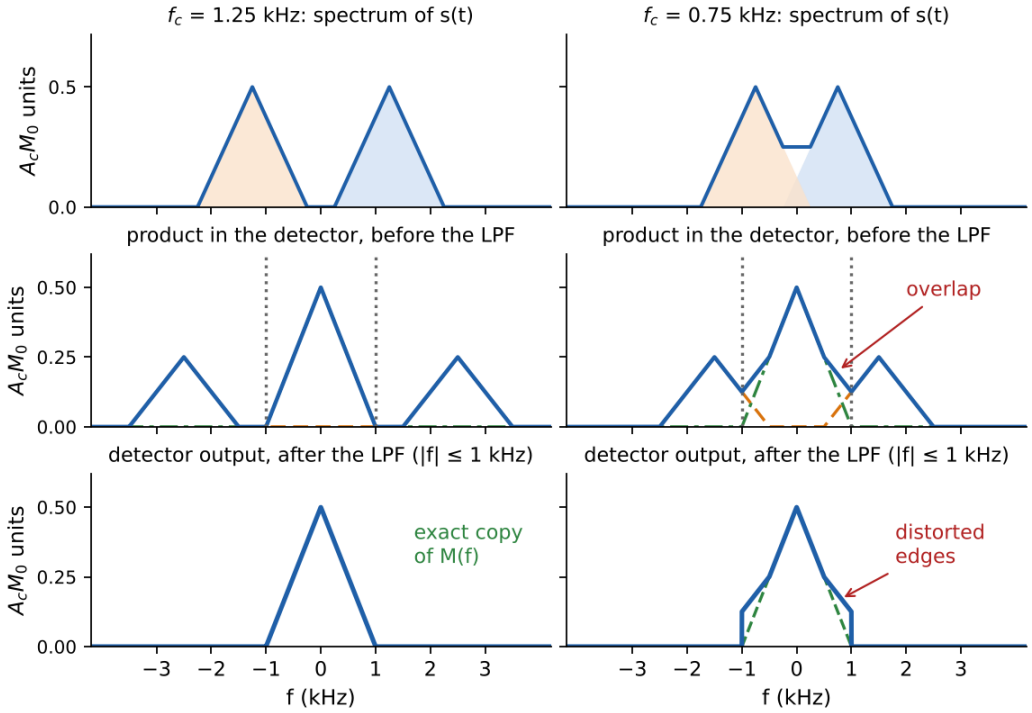


Figure 24: Spectra for the two carrier frequencies

Reading the figure. Each column is one carrier frequency, and the rows follow the signal. Top: the spectrum of $s(t)$, with the two shifted copies tinted. Middle: the spectrum in the detector, where the solid blue line is the total $V(f)$, and the dotted lines mark the LPF edges $\pm W$. Bottom: the output after the LPF. On the right, the dashed green line is the ideal triangle and the solid blue line is the real output.

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

Case (i): $f_c = 1.25$ kHz

The copies in $V(f)$ are centred at ± 2.5 kHz and span $1.5 \le |f| \le 3.5$ kHz. They lie fully outside $|f| \le 1$ kHz, so the LPF removes them:

$$\boxed{V_o(f) = \frac{A_c}{2} M(f)}$$

The output is an undistorted triangle of height $A_c M_0/2$ on $|f| \le 1$ kHz, so $m(t)$ is recovered exactly.

Case (ii): $f_c = 0.75$ kHz

The copies are centred at ± 1.5 kHz and span $0.5 \le |f| \le 2.5$ kHz, which overlaps the message for $0.5 \le |f| \le 1$ kHz. The LPF cannot separate them:

$$\boxed{V_o(f) = \frac{A_c}{2} M(f) + \frac{A_c}{4}[M(f-1.5) + M(f+1.5)], \quad |f| \le 1 \text{ kHz}}$$

(f in kHz.) With $M(f) = M_0(1 - |f|)$:

- For $|f| \le 0.5$ kHz: $V_o = \dfrac{A_c M_0}{2}(1 - |f|)$, the correct triangle.
- For $0.5 \le |f| \le 1$ kHz: $V_o = \dfrac{A_c M_0}{2}(1 - |f|) + \dfrac{A_c M_0}{4}(|f| - 0.5) = \dfrac{A_c M_0}{4}(1.5 - |f|)$.

At $|f| = 1$ kHz the output is $A_c M_0/8$ instead of 0. The edges are distorted, so $m(t)$ is *not* recovered exactly.

Lowest carrier frequency

For each component of $s(t)$ to be uniquely determined by $m(t)$, the lobes centred at $+f_c$ and $-f_c$ must not overlap. They span $f_c - W$ to $f_c + W$ and the mirror image, so we need $f_c - W \ge 0$:

$$\boxed{f_{c,min} = W = 1 \text{ kHz}}$$

Final Answer: (i) $V_o(f) = (A_c/2)M(f)$, undistorted; (ii) the same plus overlapping tails for $0.5 \le |f| \le 1$ kHz, distorted; lowest carrier frequency 1 kHz.

3. Notes and Remarks

- In case (ii), $f_c < W$ overlaps $S(f)$ itself around $f = 0$ (top right of the figure, for $|f| < 0.25$ kHz). That is the same failure, seen one step earlier.
- The scale $A_c/2$ depends on the local carrier's amplitude. With $2\cos(2\pi f_c t)$ the output is $A_c M(f)$. The shape is the same.
- At exactly $f_c = W$ the lobes just touch at $f = 0$, and only an ideal LPF separates the terms. Real systems use $f_c \gg W$.

4. Final Concise Answer

(a) TDMA separates users by time slots, needs exact timing, and has a hard capacity limit. CDMA separates users by codes in the same band at the same time, needs power control, and has a soft capacity limit.
(b) $C = 3400 \log_2(1001) = 33.89$ kbit/s; $\text{SNR}_{min} = 2^{4800/3400} - 1 = 1.66$ (2.2 dB).
(c) $f_s = 400$ Hz; $L \ge 400$, so $n = 9$; $R_b = 36$ kbit/s; $B_T = 18$ kHz.
(d) (i) $(A_c/2)M(f)$; (ii) $(A_c/2)M(f)$ plus tails overlapping for $0.5 \le |f| \le 1$ kHz; lowest carrier frequency $f_c = W = 1$ kHz.

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

6. (a) Briefly describe FSK generation with the necessary block diagram. Include its spectrum and discuss the bandwidth requirements, along with the advantages and disadvantages of FSK. Marks: 8
   (b) With proper block diagram explain the principle of coherent detection of QAM. Mention its advantages and drawbacks. Marks: 7
   (c) Explain the principle of frequency hopping spread spectrum technique. Marks: 6
   (d) Tabulate the values of signal at each stage of DPSK encoder and receiver for message signal '1010011100' Marks: 4

6.(a) Briefly describe FSK generation with the necessary block diagram. Include its spectrum and discuss the bandwidth requirements, along with the advantages and disadvantages of FSK. Marks: 8

1. Theory

1. What is FSK? (Core Idea)

To send bits by radio, each bit must change something about a carrier. **Frequency shift keying (FSK)** changes its frequency: one frequency f_1 for bit 1 and another frequency f_0 for bit 0. The amplitude stays constant.

$$s(t) = \begin{cases} A\cos 2\pi f_1 t & \text{bit } 1 \\ A\cos 2\pi f_0 t & \text{bit } 0 \end{cases} \qquad f_{1,0} = f_c \pm \Delta f$$

Here f_c is the centre frequency and Δf is the shift on each side.

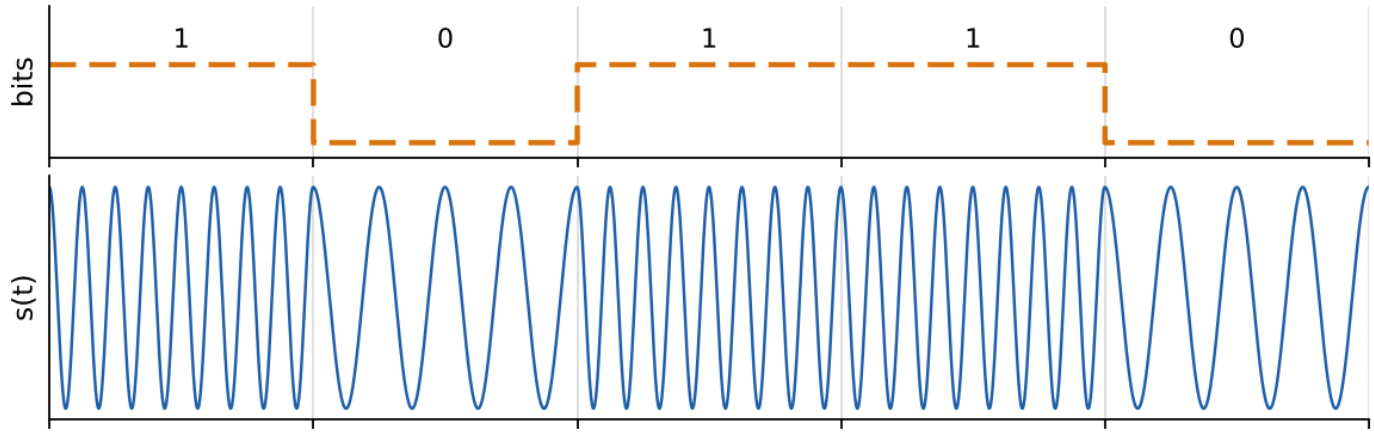


Figure 25: FSK waveform for the bits 10110

Reading the figure. The dashed orange line is the data. In the 1-bit intervals the solid blue wave has the higher frequency, and in the 0-bit intervals the lower one. Its height never changes.

2. FSK as two ASK signals

Consider only the bits equal to 1. The f_1 carrier is on during them and off otherwise: that is **amplitude shift keying (ASK)**. The same is true of the f_0 carrier and the 0 bits. So FSK is two ASK signals added together, and its spectrum is two ASK spectra, one around each frequency. This one idea gives the bandwidth.
An ASK signal of bit rate R_b with rectangular pulses has a sinc^2-shaped spectrum with a main lobe reaching $\pm R_b$ around its carrier.

2. Answer

FSK represents bits by two carrier frequencies, $f_1 = f_c + \Delta f$ for 1 and $f_0 = f_c - \Delta f$ for 0.

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

Generation:

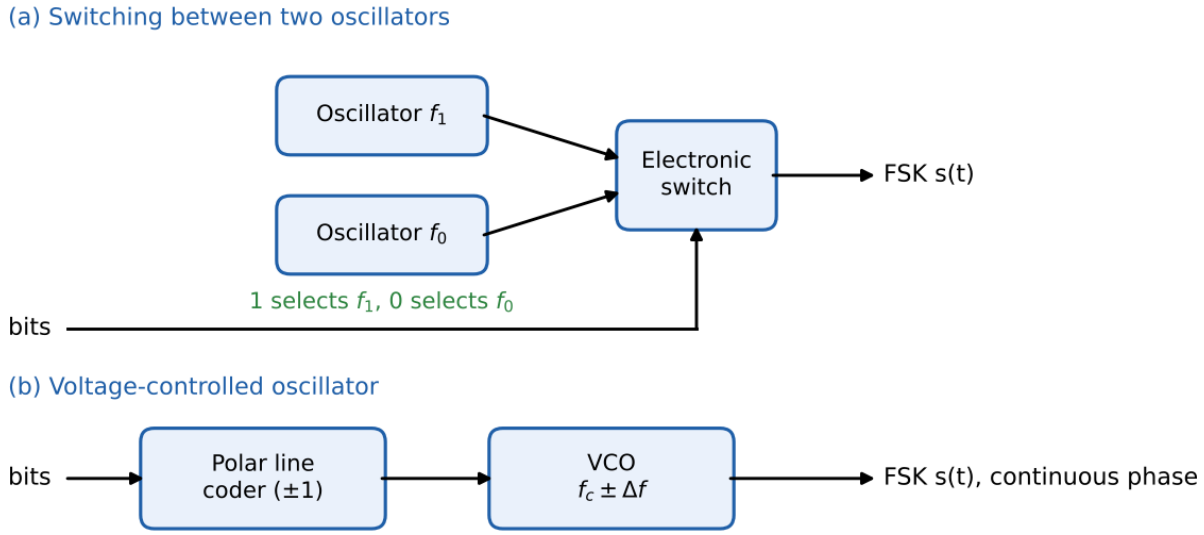


Figure 26: Two ways to generate FSK

Reading the figure. (a) Two free-running oscillators feed an electronic switch, and the bit stream selects which one reaches the output. (b) The bits become a polar ±1 wave, which drives a VCO, so the frequency moves to $f_c \pm \Delta f$.

- **(a) Switching:** simple, but since the two oscillators are independent, the phase can jump at bit edges. This widens the spectrum.
- **(b) VCO:** the phase stays continuous (CPFSK), so the spectrum is more compact. FSK is then FM with a digital message.

Spectrum and bandwidth:

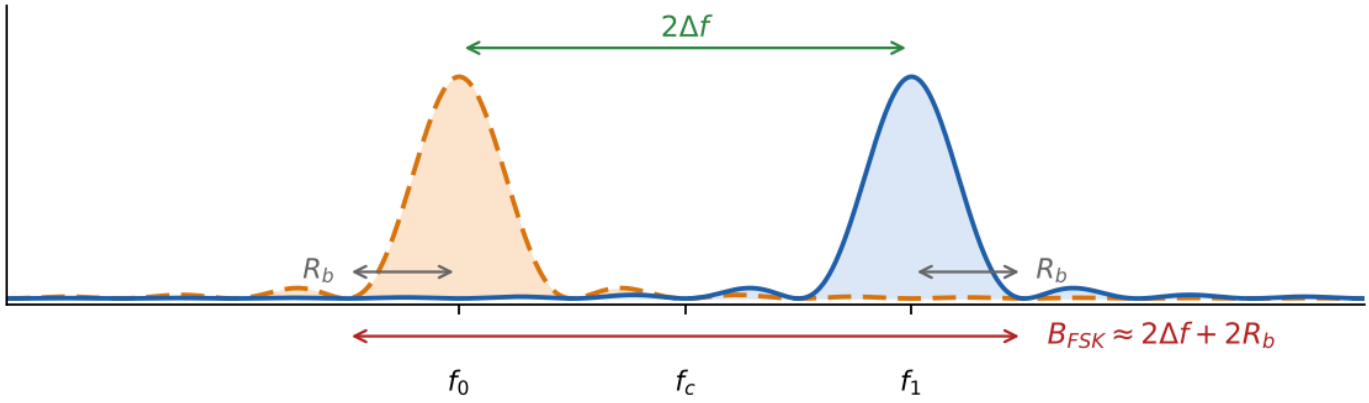


Figure 27: Spectrum of FSK

Reading the figure. The dashed orange lobe is around f_0 and the solid blue lobe is around f_1, $2\Delta f$ apart. Each main lobe reaches R_b on either side. The long arrow below the axis marks the total. The two ASK lobes are $2\Delta f$ apart, each extending R_b beyond its centre, so

$$\boxed{B_{FSK} \approx 2\Delta f + 2R_b}$$

For example, with $R_b = 1$ kbit/s and $\Delta f = 1$ kHz, $B_{FSK} \approx 2(1) + 2(1) = 4$ kHz. With filtered pulses, Forouzan writes $B = (1 + d)S + 2\Delta f$, where S is the baud rate and $0 \le d \le 1$ depends on the filter. It gives the same 4 kHz at $d = 1$.

Advantages:

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

- Constant envelope, so noise and fading in amplitude have little effect, and efficient non-linear power amplifiers can be used.
- Simple, and can be detected non-coherently, with no local carrier.
- Better than ASK against noise.

Disadvantages:

- Needs more bandwidth than ASK or PSK.
- Coherent FSK needs 3 dB more power than PSK for the same error rate.
- Its spectrum is not used efficiently at high data rates.

3. Notes and Remarks

- The bandwidth uses main-lobe reach. Other authors count less of the spectrum and give a smaller value, so state the rule used.

6.(b) With proper block diagram explain the principle of coherent detection of QAM. Mention its advantages and drawbacks. Marks: 7

1. Theory

1. Why QAM? (Core Idea)

A DSB signal uses twice the message's bandwidth. **Quadrature amplitude modulation (QAM)** recovers this waste: it sends *two* messages in one band, on two carriers of the same frequency that are 90° apart, $\cos \omega_c t$ and $\sin \omega_c t$.

$$\varphi_{QAM}(t) = m_1(t) \cos \omega_c t + m_2(t) \sin \omega_c t$$

They overlap fully in frequency, yet they can be separated. The reason is that sine and cosine are **orthogonal**: over a full cycle, the average of their product is zero.

2. How the separation works

Two identities do the job:

$$2 \cos^2 x = 1 + \cos 2x, \qquad 2 \sin x \cos x = \sin 2x$$

Multiplying by $2 \cos \omega_c t$ turns the cos term into a baseband term, and leaves the sin term with only a $2\omega_c$ component. A low-pass filter then removes everything at $2\omega_c$.

2. Answer

Coherent detection of QAM multiplies the received signal by two local carriers in quadrature and low-pass filters each product, which separates the two messages.

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

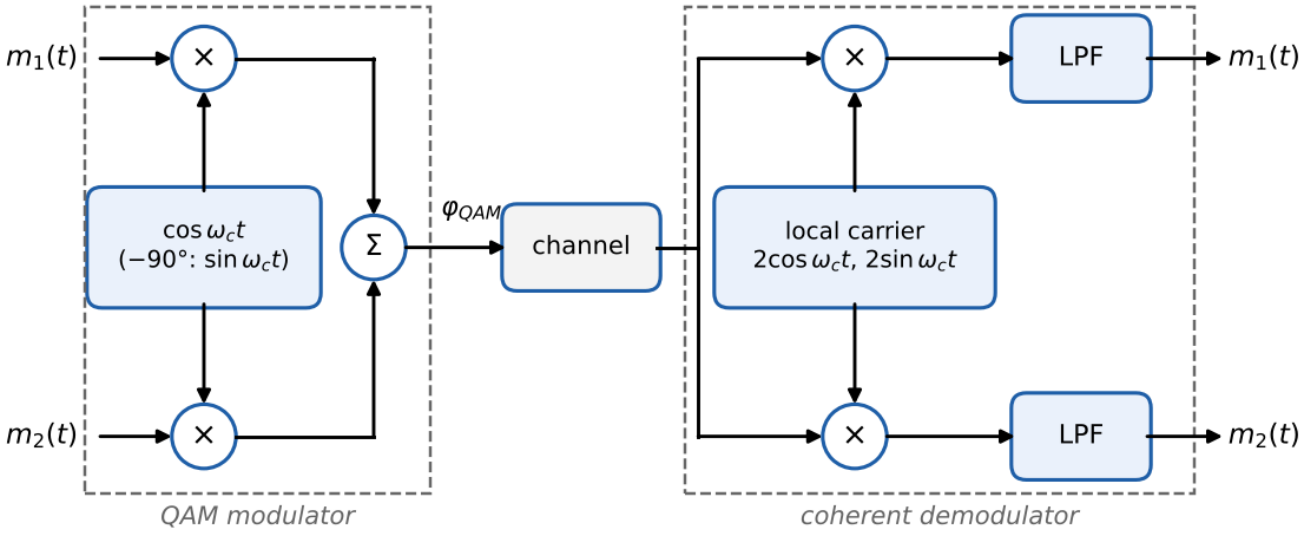


Figure 28: QAM modulator and coherent demodulator

Reading the figure. Left: m_1 and m_2 modulate carriers 90° apart, and the summer adds them. Right: the received signal goes to two multipliers, driven by the same pair of local carriers, and each LPF gives back one message.

Upper branch:

$$\varphi_{QAM}(t) \cdot 2\cos \omega_c t = m_1(t) + m_1(t)\cos 2\omega_c t + m_2(t)\sin 2\omega_c t$$

The LPF removes the $2\omega_c$ terms, leaving $m_1(t)$.

Lower branch:

$$\varphi_{QAM}(t) \cdot 2\sin \omega_c t = m_2(t) - m_2(t)\cos 2\omega_c t + m_1(t)\sin 2\omega_c t$$

The LPF leaves $m_2(t)$.

Advantages:

- Doubles the use of the band: two signals in the bandwidth of one DSB signal.
- For digital data, many bits per symbol (16-QAM carries 4), so high data rates in limited bandwidth.

Drawbacks:

- Needs exact carrier synchronization. With a phase error θ, the upper output is $m_1(t)\cos\theta - m_2(t)\sin\theta$, so m_2 leaks into m_1 (**crosstalk**), and the wanted signal weakens.
- More complex receiver, and it needs a linear power amplifier, since the amplitude varies.
- Denser QAM needs a higher SNR.

3. Notes and Remarks

- To see the crosstalk, multiply by $2\cos(\omega_c t + \theta)$: the low-frequency part is $m_1 \cos\theta - m_2 \sin\theta$. At $\theta = 90°$ the outputs have swapped completely.

6.(c) Explain the principle of frequency hopping spread spectrum technique. Marks: 6

1. Theory

1. Why spread a signal? (Core Idea)

Normally we keep a signal's bandwidth as small as possible. **Spread spectrum** does the opposite: it spreads the signal across a much wider band than it needs, on purpose. The aim is protection. A jammer or an eavesdropper cannot cover or follow the whole band easily, and interference in one small part of the band has only a small effect.

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

2. The idea of hopping

Imagine two people talking on a walkie-talkie who keep changing channel every moment, following a secret list that they both have. Anyone listening on one channel hears only a fragment. A noisy channel spoils only a small part of the talk. This is **frequency hopping spread spectrum (FHSS)**.

2. Answer

In FHSS the carrier frequency hops from one value to another among M frequencies, following a pseudorandom pattern known to the transmitter and the receiver. The signal stays narrowband at each instant, but occupies a wide band over time.

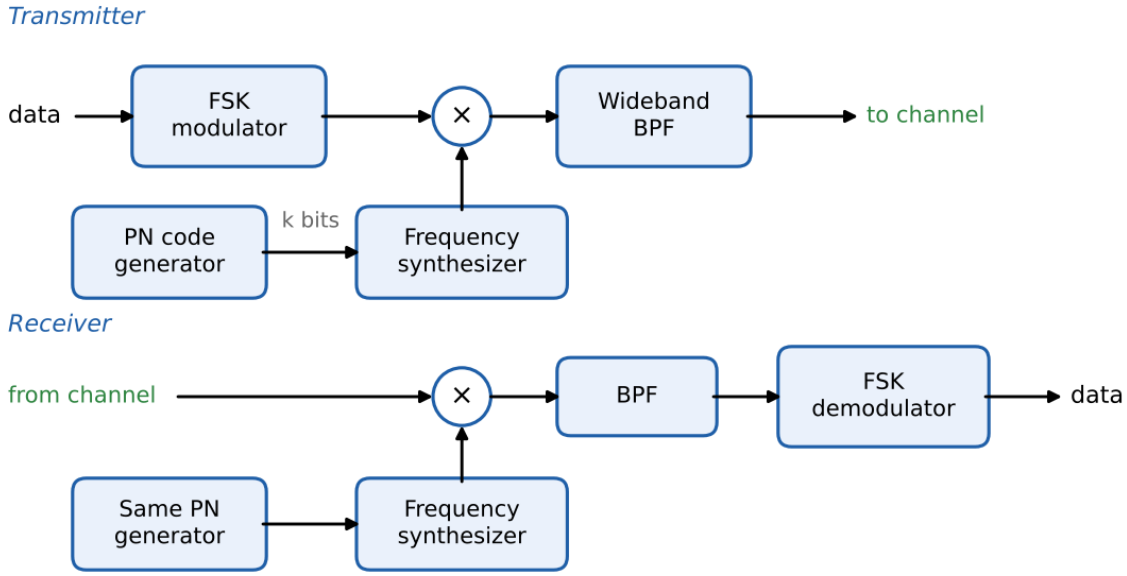


Figure 29: FHSS transmitter and receiver

Reading the figure. Top: the data is FSK modulated and mixed with a hopping tone, and the wideband filter passes the result. The tone comes from a frequency synthesizer set by the PN code generator. Bottom: an identical generator, in step with the transmitter, drives the same hops, so the mixer undoes them, and the filter and demodulator recover the data.

Transmitter:

1. The data modulates a fixed carrier (usually FSK), giving a narrowband signal.
2. A **pseudorandom noise (PN) generator** produces a k-bit pattern in each hopping period.
3. The **frequency synthesizer** turns the pattern into one of $M = 2^k$ frequencies.
4. The **mixer** shifts the narrowband signal to that frequency.

Receiver: the same PN generator, in synchronism, drives the same frequency sequence. Mixing brings the signal back to the fixed frequency (**dehopping**), and normal demodulation follows.

Example

with $k = 3$ there are 8 frequencies. The pattern 101, 111, 001, 000, 010, 110, 011, 100 selects the carrier for each hop, then repeats.

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

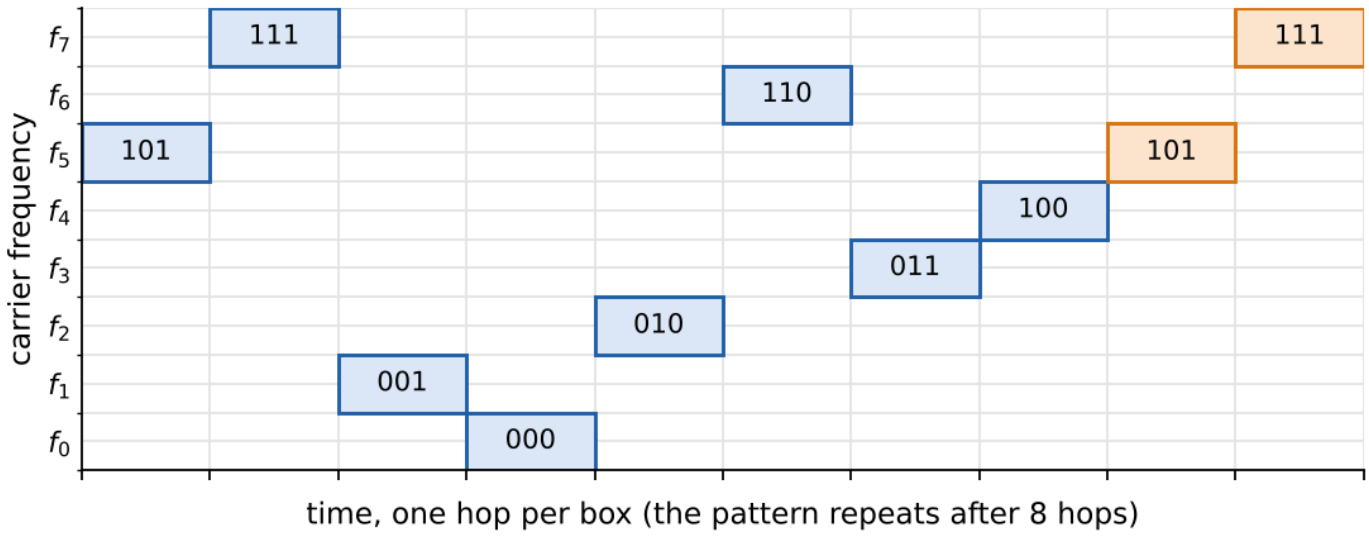


Figure 30: Hopping pattern of eight frequencies

Reading the figure. Each box is one hop, and its height shows the carrier in use, with the 3-bit pattern that chose it. The first 8 boxes are one full cycle, and the last 2 boxes show that it starts again.
Bandwidth: if each hop uses bandwidth B, the spread bandwidth is about $B_{SS} \approx MB$.
Types: **slow hopping** sends several bits per hop, and **fast hopping** uses several hops per bit.
Advantages: resists jamming (a jammer on one frequency hits only $1/M$ of the hops), resists eavesdropping, and lets many users share the band with different patterns. **Drawback:** needs a wide band and exact synchronization of the hop pattern.

3. Notes and Remarks

- Bluetooth is a well-known use: it hops among 79 channels of 1 MHz.

6.(d) Tabulate the values of signal at each stage of DPSK encoder and receiver for message signal '1010011100' Marks: 4

1. Theory

1. The idea of DPSK (Core Idea)

Ordinary PSK puts each bit in the absolute phase of the carrier, so the receiver needs a perfect local carrier. **Differential PSK (DPSK)** puts each bit in the *change* of phase: data 1 flips the phase, and data 0 keeps it. The receiver only compares each bit interval with the one before it, so it needs no local carrier.

2. The stages

- **Differential encoder:** $q_k = I_k \oplus q_{k-1}$, the XOR with the previous encoded bit. Since $x \oplus 1 = \bar{x}$ and $x \oplus 0 = x$, a 1 flips and a 0 keeps.
- **Polar coder:** $q_k = 1 \to a_k = +1$ (phase 0); $q_k = 0 \to a_k = -1$ (phase π).
- **PSK modulator:** $\varphi(t) = a_k A_c \cos \omega_c t$.
- **Receiver:** multiply the signal by itself delayed by one bit, then low-pass filter. The output is proportional to $a_k a_{k-1}$: positive (same phase) means 0, and negative (phase changed) means 1.

2. Answer

Given: message $I_k = 1\ 0\ 1\ 0\ 0\ 1\ 1\ 1\ 0\ 0$ (10 bits).
Convention (Lathi's differential encoding, where a 1 flips the phase): $q_k = I_k \oplus q_{k-1}$, with a reference bit $q_0 = 0$ sent first (phase π).

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

k	0 (ref)	1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10
Data I_k	–	1	0	1	0	0	1	1	1	0	0
q_{k-1} (delayed)	–	0	1	1	0	0	0	1	0	1	1
Encoded $q_k = I_k \oplus q_{k-1}$	0	1	1	0	0	0	1	0	1	1	1
Polar a_k	-1	$+1$	$+1$	-1	-1	-1	$+1$	-1	$+1$	$+1$	$+1$
Phase θ_k	π	0	0	π	π	π	0	π	0	0	0
Rx: delayed a_{k-1}	–	-1	$+1$	$+1$	-1	-1	-1	$+1$	-1	$+1$	$+1$
Rx: LPF output sign $a_k a_{k-1}$	–	$-$	$+$	$-$	$+$	$+$	$-$	$-$	$-$	$+$	$+$
Phase change?	–	yes	no	yes	no	no	yes	yes	yes	no	no
Detected bit	–	1	0	1	0	0	1	1	1	0	0

Table 6: DPSK encoder and receiver for the message 1010011100

Check: the detected bits 1 0 1 0 0 1 1 1 0 0 equal the message. ✔

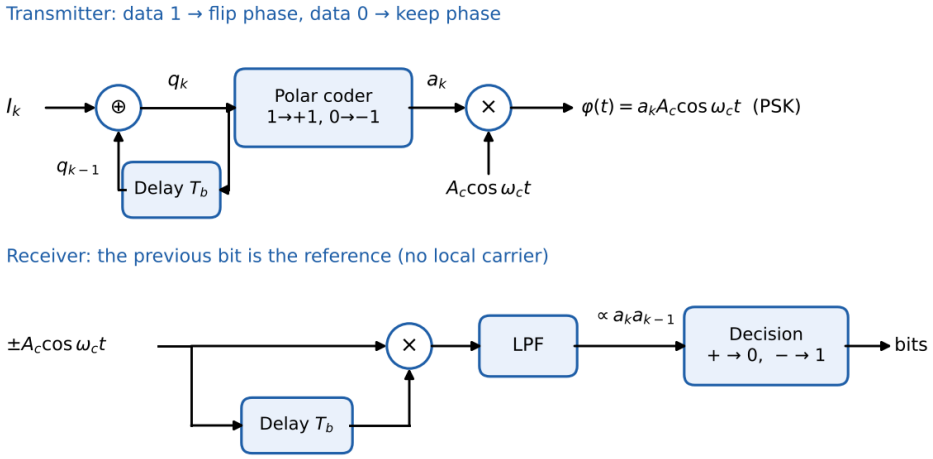


Figure 31: DPSK transmitter and receiver

Reading the figure. Top: the XOR of I_k and the delayed q_{k-1} gives q_k, then the polar coder and the multiplier give PSK. Bottom: the receiver multiplies the signal by its one-bit-delayed copy, and the LPF and the decision give the bits.

3. Notes and Remarks

- Starting with $q_0 = 1$ inverts the q_k, a_k and phase rows, but the detected bits stay the same. State the convention used.
- A single wrong phase usually spoils *two* detected bits, because each interval is also the reference for the next.

4. Final Concise Answer

(a) Bits select $f_c \pm \Delta f$, by switching two oscillators or with a VCO. Spectrum: two ASK lobes, $B \approx 2\Delta f + 2R_b$. Advantages: constant envelope, simple detection. Disadvantages: wide bandwidth, less power-efficient than PSK.

(b) Multiply by $2\cos\omega_c t$ and $2\sin\omega_c t$, then LPF, to get m_1 and m_2. Doubles band use, but needs exact sync; a phase error gives crosstalk $m_1\cos\theta - m_2\sin\theta$.

(c) A PN code drives a synthesizer, so the carrier hops among $M = 2^k$ frequencies; the receiver hops in step. $B_{SS} \approx MB$. It resists jamming and eavesdropping.

(d) q_k = 1 1 0 0 0 1 0 1 1 1 (reference $q_0 = 0$); phases 0, 0, π, π, π, 0, π, 0, 0, 0; detected 1 0 1 0 0 1 1 1 0 0.

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

FORMULA SHEET

EEE329

Basic Communication Engineering

Formula Sheet

Session 2020–21 paper

Every formula behind the 3rd Year 2nd Semester Final Examination, 2023

TOPICS

1 Information and channel capacity — 9 formulas

2 Noise — 2 formulas

3 Amplitude modulation — 9 formulas

4 Angle modulation — 6 formulas

5 Sampling, PCM and delta modulation — 9 formulas

6 Multiplexing — 3 formulas

7 Receivers and digital modulation — 10 formulas

Each topic is one table: **Title** · **Equation** · **Notation** · **Reference**.

Prepared by Nur Mohammad

October 2026

BACK OF THE COVER

Before you use the sheet

How to read a row

Information in a symbol	$I = \log_2 \frac{1}{P}$ bits	P = probability of the symbol	1(a)
↑ the name you search for	↑ the formula, exactly as derived	↑ every new symbol with its unit	↑ link: opens the derivation

In the exam

- Write the formula first, then put the numbers in: the formula alone often earns a mark.
- Read the symbols in the Notation column before you substitute, and check the units.
- Not sure where a formula comes from? Its Reference opens the derivation.
- The **Key formulas** page at the end gathers the rows marked ★.
- Lost a symbol? The **Symbol index** at the end links to the row where it first appears.

Contents

1 Information and channel capacity 4

2 Noise 4

3 Amplitude modulation 5

4 Angle modulation 6

5 Sampling, PCM and delta modulation 6

6 Multiplexing 7

7 Receivers and digital modulation 7

8 Key formulas 8

9 Symbol index 9

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

Conventions (Lathi and Ding, 4th ed.): $\omega = 2\pi f$; $m(t)$ is the message, m_p its peak value and B its bandwidth (Hz); μ is the AM modulation index and β the FM one; $\operatorname{sinc} x = \sin x/x$. Signal amplitudes are peak values.

Columns: Title · Equation · Notation · Ref. (reference).

1. Information and channel capacity:

Title	Equation	Notation	Ref.
Information in a symbol	$I = \log_2 \frac{1}{P}$ bits	P = probability of the symbol	1(a)
★ **Entropy**	$H = \sum_i P_i \log_2 \frac{1}{P_i}$ bits/symbol	H = average information per symbol	1(a)
★ **Binary entropy**	$H(p) = -p \log_2 p - (1-p)\log_2(1-p)$	p = probability of one symbol; $H_{max} = 1$ bit at $p = 0.5$	1(a)
Equally likely levels	$H = \log_2 L$	L = number of levels	3(d)
★ **Information rate**	$R = f_s H$ bit/s	f_s = symbols per second	3(d)
★ **Shannon capacity**	$C = B \log_2 \left(1 + \frac{S}{N}\right)$	B = bandwidth (Hz) S/N = plain power ratio; need $R \le C$	3(d)
Decibels to ratio	$\frac{S}{N} = 10^{\mathrm{dB}/10}$	20 dB = 100; 30 dB = 1000	5(b)
Minimum SNR	$\mathrm{SNR}_{min} = 2^{R/B} - 1$	at the limit $R = C$	5(b)
Bandwidth for a rate	$B = \frac{R}{\log_2(1 + S/N)}$	at the limit $R = C$	3(d)

Table 1: Information and channel capacity

2. Noise:

Title	Equation	Notation	Ref.
★ **Thermal noise power**	$P_n = kTB$	$k = 1.38 \times 10^{-23}$ J/K T = temperature (K)	1(c)
Thermal noise voltage	$V_n = \sqrt{4kTBR}$	R = resistance (Ω); r.m.s. value	1(c)

Table 2: Noise

3. Amplitude modulation:

Title	Equation	Notation	Ref.
AM wave	$s(t) = [E_c + E_m \sin \omega_m t] \sin \omega_c t$	E_c, E_m = peak carrier and message (V)	1(d)
★ **Modulation index**	$\mu = \dfrac{E_m}{E_c}$	no distortion in an envelope detector if $\mu \leq 1$	1(d)
Side frequencies	$f_c \pm f_m$, amplitude $\dfrac{\mu E_c}{2}$	each side	1(d)
Carrier power	$P_c = \dfrac{E_c^2}{2R}$	R = load (Ω); peak values	1(e)
★ **Total power**	$P_t = P_c \left(1 + \dfrac{\mu^2}{2}\right)$	carrier plus two sidebands	1(e)
DSB-SC spectrum	$S(f) = \dfrac{A_c}{2}[M(f - f_c) + M(f + f_c)]$	$M(f)$ = message spectrum	5(d)
Coherent detector product	$V(f) = \dfrac{A_c}{2} M(f) + \dfrac{A_c}{4}[M(f - 2f_c) + M(f + 2f_c)]$	local carrier $\cos 2\pi f_c t$	5(d)
★ **Lowest carrier**	$f_c \geq W$	W = message bandwidth	5(d)
★ **VSB receiver filter**	$H_o(f) = \dfrac{1}{H_i(f + f_c) + H_i(f - f_c)}$	$\lvert f \rvert \leq B$; H_i = transmit filter	4(b)

Table 3: Amplitude modulation

4. Angle modulation:

Title	Equation	Notation	Ref.
Instantaneous frequency	$\omega_i = \dfrac{d\theta}{dt}$	$\theta(t)$ = carrier angle	2(c)
PM	$\varphi_{PM} = A\cos[\omega_c t + k_p m(t)]$	k_p = phase sensitivity	2(c)
FM	$\varphi_{FM} = A\cos\left[\omega_c t + k_f \int m\, d\alpha\right]$	k_f = frequency sensitivity	2(c)
★ **Frequency deviation**	$\Delta f = k_f V_m$	k_f in Hz/V; independent of f_m	2(d)
★ **FM modulation index**	$\beta = \dfrac{\Delta f}{f_m}$	can exceed 1; no unit	2(d)
★ **Carson's rule**	$B_T \approx 2(\Delta f + f_m) = 2(\beta + 1) f_m$	approximate	4(d)

Table 4: Angle modulation

5. Sampling, PCM and delta modulation:

Title	Equation	Notation	Ref.
★ **Nyquist rate**	$f_s \geq 2B$	B = highest message frequency (Hz)	4(c)
Sampled spectrum	$\bar{G}(f) = \dfrac{1}{T_s}\sum_n G(f - nf_s)$	$T_s = 1/f_s$	4(c)
★ **Interpolation formula**	$g(t) = \sum_k g(kT_s)\,\mathrm{sinc}(2\pi Bt - k\pi)$	$\mathrm{sinc}\, x = \sin x/x$; $T_s = 1/2B$	4(c)
Bits per sample	$n = \log_2 L$	$L = 2^n$ levels	3(c)
★ **PCM bit rate**	$R_b = nf_s$	bit/s	3(c)
Quantization step	$\Delta = \dfrac{2m_p}{L}$	m_p = peak signal	5(c)
Largest error	$e_{max} = \dfrac{\Delta}{2} = \dfrac{m_p}{L}$	half a step	5(c)
★ **DM largest slope**	σf_s	σ = step size	3(a)
No slope overload	$\left\lvert\dfrac{dm}{dt}\right\rvert_{max} \leq \sigma f_s$	for a tone, $A\omega_m \leq \sigma f_s$	3(a)

Table 5: Sampling, PCM and delta modulation

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

6. Multiplexing:

Title	Equation	Notation	Ref.
★ **FDM link bandwidth**	$B_{link} = NB_{ch} + (N-1)B_g$	N = channels B_g = guard band	2(b)
★ **TDM bit rate**	$R_b = Nf_sn$	N = channels	5(c)
Minimum bandwidth	$B_T = \frac{R_b}{2}$	binary pulses	5(c)

Table 6: Multiplexing

7. Receivers and digital modulation:

Title	Equation	Notation	Ref.
★ **Local oscillator**	$f_{LO} = f_s + f_{IF}$	f_{IF} = 455 kHz for AM	4(a)
★ **Image frequency**	$f_{si} = f_s + 2f_{IF}$	must be removed before the mixer	4(a)
FSK frequencies	$f_{1,0} = f_c \pm \Delta f$	f_1 for bit 1, f_0 for bit 0	6(a)
★ **FSK bandwidth**	$B_{FSK} \approx 2\Delta f + 2R_b$	R_b = bit rate	6(a)
FSK bandwidth (Forouzan)	$B = (1+d)S + 2\Delta f$	S = baud rate; $0 \le d \le 1$	6(a)
★ **QAM signal**	$\varphi_{QAM} = m_1 \cos\omega_c t + m_2 \sin\omega_c t$	m_1, m_2 = the two messages	6(b)
QAM with phase error	$m_1 \cos\theta - m_2 \sin\theta$	upper output; crosstalk	6(b)
FHSS channels	$M = 2^k$, $B_{SS} \approx MB$	k = PN pattern bits	6(c)
★ **DPSK encoder**	$q_k = I_k \oplus q_{k-1}$	I_k = data bit q_k = encoded bit	6(d)
DPSK receiver	$y_k \propto a_k a_{k-1}$	$a_k = \pm 1$; negative means 1	6(d)

Table 7: Receivers and digital modulation

8. Key formulas:

The formulas marked ★ in the sheet, on one page. Each title links back to its row.

Title	Equation
Entropy	$H = \sum_i P_i \log_2 \frac{1}{P_i}$ bits/symbol
Binary entropy	$H(p) = -p \log_2 p - (1-p) \log_2 (1-p)$
Information rate	$R = f_s H$ bit/s
Shannon capacity	$C = B \log_2 \left(1 + \frac{S}{N}\right)$
Thermal noise power	$P_n = kTB$
Modulation index	$\mu = \frac{E_m}{E_c}$
Total power	$P_t = P_c \left(1 + \frac{\mu^2}{2}\right)$
Lowest carrier	$f_c \geq W$
VSB receiver filter	$H_o(f) = \frac{1}{H_i(f+f_c) + H_i(f-f_c)}$
Frequency deviation	$\Delta f = k_f V_m$
FM modulation index	$\beta = \frac{\Delta f}{f_m}$
Carson's rule	$B_T \approx 2(\Delta f + f_m) = 2(\beta + 1) f_m$
Nyquist rate	$f_s \geq 2B$
Interpolation formula	$g(t) = \sum_k g(kT_s) \operatorname{sinc}(2\pi Bt - k\pi)$
PCM bit rate	$R_b = n f_s$
DM largest slope	σf_s
FDM link bandwidth	$B_{link} = N B_{ch} + (N-1) B_g$
TDM bit rate	$R_b = N f_s n$
Local oscillator	$f_{LO} = f_s + f_{IF}$
Image frequency	$f_{si} = f_s + 2 f_{IF}$
FSK bandwidth	$B_{FSK} \approx 2\Delta f + 2R_b$
QAM signal	$\varphi_{QAM} = m_1 \cos \omega_c t + m_2 \sin \omega_c t$
DPSK encoder	$q_k = I_k \oplus q_{k-1}$

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad

9. Symbol index:

Every symbol the sheet defines, in the order it first appears. The last column links to that row.

Symbol	Meaning	First used in
P	probability of the symbol	Information in a symbol
H	average information per symbol	Entropy
p	probability of one symbol; $H_{max} = 1$ bit at $p = 0.5$	Binary entropy
L	number of levels	Equally likely levels
f_s	symbols per second	Information rate
B	bandwidth (Hz)	Shannon capacity
S/N	plain power ratio; need $R \leq C$	Shannon capacity
20 dB	100; 30 dB = 1000	Decibels to ratio
T	temperature (K)	Thermal noise power
R	resistance (Ω); r.m.s. value	Thermal noise voltage
E_c, E_m	peak carrier and message (V)	AM wave
$M(f)$	message spectrum	DSB-SC spectrum
W	message bandwidth	Lowest carrier
$\|f\| \leq B$; H_i	transmit filter	VSB receiver filter
$\theta(t)$	carrier angle	Instantaneous frequency
k_p	phase sensitivity	PM
k_f	frequency sensitivity	FM
m_p	peak signal	Quantization step
σ	step size	DM largest slope
N	channels	FDM link bandwidth
B_g	guard band	FDM link bandwidth
R_b	bit rate	FSK bandwidth
S	baud rate; $0 \leq d \leq 1$	FSK bandwidth (Forouzan)
m_1, m_2	the two messages	QAM signal
k	PN pattern bits	FHSS channels
I_k	data bit	DPSK encoder
q_k	encoded bit	DPSK encoder

Free shared copy · Nur Mohammad